UNSilencing Slavery

TELLING TRUTHS ABOUT ROSE HALL PLANTATION, JAMAICA

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CHAPTER 1

In the Wake of the Archive

As stated in my introduction, this book is not about all the intricacies and nuances of slavery at Rose Hall Plantation, nor is it a description of a day in the life of an enslaved person at Rose Hall. I do not have enough historical evidence to duly present either of those narratives. In the chapters that follow I provide some historical context about slavery in Jamaica, and I reference particular experiences and situations occurring throughout slaveocracies primarily in the Anglophone Caribbean. The purpose of this book is not to provide an in-depth contextualization of slavery in Jamaica. There are many comprehensive texts on the subject of Jamaican plantations, and I have highlighted a number of these major works in the endnotes of this book for your perusal. Whether this is the first book on slavery you are reading or whether you have read or even written articles and books on slavery, I recognize that you possess some basic information about slavery. You most likely know that slavery was a system that forced people of African descent into bondage, it was a system that restricted their rights and overworked and exploited them, and it was a system that incorporated whippings and other forms of violence. Some of this general information is provided in a cursory manner in secondary schools and, to a lesser degree, even in primary schools. Academic lessons on slavery in secondary schools often focus more on the jobs and labor of enslaved people, presenting them primarily as "field hands," and less on considering their full humanity and lived experiences.

I have chosen not to begin with the "usual" beginning, with information about white enslavers and the onerous duties performed by enslaved people at Rose Hall, including the range of socioeconomic functions they served at this plantation and other sugar plantations in the Caribbean. Part of the reason I do not start with the chapter on labor at Rose Hall is that I purposely want you to join with me (be alongside me) for the journey into the archival documents and what they reveal in a more holistic way. You may not have any sense of what it means to confront silences in the archives. I want you not only to enter the tour

with me (and my daughter) as you did in the introduction but also to enter the archives and the documents with me—to see what is there and what is not. Given how much I rely on the Rose Hall Journal to construct this book, in this chapter I provide a lot of details about the journal, and I have included a few selected pages from the journal in this book for your perusal. It is important to note that not all plantation journals are the same; there is no universal format or template for plantation journals in Jamaica or across the sugar plantations in the Caribbean. As I have centered silences as part of the truths I am telling here, I want you to experience what I mean by silences in the documents, in the archives, in the novel, and on the tour. I want you to understand that although enslaved people were absolutely necessary for slavery to function at all, enslaved people were marginalized and objectified in the very documents that delineate the workings, profits, and accounting of slavery.

Like those on other plantations in Jamaica, Rose Hall's enslaved population included a combination of people born in communities in Africa and in the Americas. Nonetheless, from the archival documents, including the Rose Hall Journal, it is impossible to know how the lives of enslaved persons from different lands intermingled at Rose Hall outside of their regular work routines, which revolved around the harvesting of sugarcane for its profitable by-products. The Rose Hall Journal serves as a tangible reminder of what and who were deemed by white enslavers and overseers as important enough to be accounted for and recorded in the weekly journal entries. The columns of the Rose Hall Journal underscore what was considered valuable information as it related to the central purpose and productivity of Rose Hall as a sugar plantation. The weekly journal entries also reflected what and who were categorized as not valuable or only worthy of a cursory notation. Both the form and content of the Rose Hall Journal embody the denigration, devaluation, and disposability of enslaved people—the format of the journal, the organization of duties and responsibilities on this plantation arranged by rows and columns, and the brevity, placement, and marginalization of notes regarding the births and deaths of enslaved people.

It is truly impossible to re-create and reconstruct both the connections and the tensions between all of these enslaved people—the tribulations, traumas, and joys they may have shared (or withheld) at Rose Hall. Even so, by naming the enslaved persons who labored at Rose Hall, we at least begin to take one important and necessary step in identifying the people enslaved there beyond the mere numerical tallies of those alive and dead. In addition, in this chapter and in chapters 2 and 3, I also purposefully tease out possible narratives of the lives of these individuals in order to provide some contextualization of their individual lives, their humanity, and their communal lived experiences at Rose Hall.

Part of the purpose of chapters 1 and 2 and the book overall is to highlight the individual enslaved people at Rose Hall and some of their individualized experiences. Even though it would be sufficient to name some of the enslaved mothers and their children, which would provide a general sense of them, one of the purposes of this book is not solely to provide an overview of *some* of the enslaved women (and people) at Rose Hall. Rather, it is to name and include *all* of the information I have unearthed about these enslaved persons as individuals who had specific relationships and connections with others at Rose Hall and most likely at other Jamaican plantations. Every enslaved person at Rose Hall was special, though no more or no less special than any other enslaved person there. So each person's name is equally important in my telling of the story of Rose Hall, of the history of Rose Hall, of the truths of Rose Hall, no matter how much or how little information is available on each person. I include enslaved people whether their name appears briefly in one historical document or they are mentioned multiple times in several archival documents. In addition, providing these details for all named enslaved people, for all adults and children at Rose Hall (instead of a smaller, random group of them) between 1817 and 1832 serves as a way potentially to assist descendants of these enslaved people and others working on Rose Hall in the future to piece together the genealogies of countless families.

"DISTRIBUTION OF NEGROES" AND "DAILY OCCURRENCES" AT ROSE HALL

Spread out in front of me are pages and pages from the three volumes of the Rose Hall Journal. I have been looking at these handwritten pages for stretches of hours, days, weeks, and months. What I *want* to see and read are detailed and exhaustive letters, narratives, and stories written by enslaved people at Rose Hall Plantation about their experiences of labor, love, and life itself. Yet that is not what I have before me, and it is, of course, not what I expected to find in the plantation records housed in the Jamaican Archives in Spanish Town, Jamaica, and at the National Archives of the United Kingdom in Kew Gardens, London.

The Rose Hall Journal entries begin on Monday, March 17, 1817, and end on Saturday, November 10, 1832.[1] The varying penmanship styles indicate that several white overseers recorded information in the journal over the course of these fifteen years. The names of the overseers and bookkeepers are rarely recorded in the individual weekly journal entries. However, specific overseers and bookkeepers are mentioned in the journal when they are newly appointed, discharged, or transferred between the Rose Hall and Palmyra plantations.[2] It is possible that Rose Hall's white bookkeepers may also have contributed to some of these entries.[3] Although there are different overseers during this time period, the overall structure of the journal entries remains fairly consistent between Monday, March 17, 1817, and Saturday, January 17, 1829. However, a shift to a different overseer on Sunday, January 18, 1829, to the end of the journal entries on November 10, 1832, resulted in a change in the placement of sections of the entries.[4] In the final months of the journal, the overseer also included more comprehensive information about enslaved people (e.g., possible reasons why specific runaways might have absconded from Rose Hall, reasons why enslaved individuals were in the hospital, and a list of enslaved people in the great house and the overseer's house, including their name, age, and color). In addition, this overseer recorded visits by specific doctors, as well as the whites employed at Rose Hall.[5]

In these final months of the Rose Hall Journal, although no one recorded enslaved people's names systematically or consistently in the journal, whites employed on a short-term or long-term basis at Rose Hall are individually named in these entries under the heading of "White People Saving Deficiencies." Because of ongoing trepidation regarding the Black majority on Jamaican plantations (and throughout the British-controlled Caribbean islands generally), Jamaican deficiency laws required enslavers to employ a certain number of whites on their estates and businesses, and those proprietors who did not satisfy this law were required to pay deficiency fines on an annual basis. Although the laws were established because of the fear of slave revolts and as a defense against potential attacks from other European nations, the deficiency laws became viewed and deployed as a revenue-generating tool. The actual annual fees ranged over time; however, the required ratios remained constant in Jamaica—one white for every thirty enslaved persons. The Jamaican laws also stipulated one white for every 150 head of cattle and one white for every shop or tavern.[6]

Although the sporadic imperial and colonial surveillance of whites on Jamaican plantations became part of the workings of Rose Hall, the Rose Hall Journal concentrates on the systemic and persistent process of categorizing, controlling, surveilling, exploiting, and ordering human beings as human property based on the dictates of a slavocracy. In the Rose Hall Journal on the left side of page after page is the title "Distribution of Negroes." Immediately under that heading, overseers have noted specific months (with the years not consistently included on every page). On the very first full page of the journal (and this is the first entry of volume 1) are the words 1817 March. To the right of this month and year are six individual columns with dates, numbered from 17 to 22, Monday to Saturday. There is no seventh column for Sunday, March 23, seemingly out of respect for this day of rest from the usual arduous work routines on the plantation. Saturday, March 22, 1817, was a regular working day at Rose Hall. However, selected

Saturdays are often noted by the Rose Hall overseers as "Negroes Day," "Negroes Taking Day," or "Negroes in their Grounds." Enslaved people at Rose Hall were often granted selected Saturdays for cultivating their provision grounds; however, enslaved people at other Jamaican plantations often worked in their provision grounds on Friday afternoons.[7]

Jamaican laws required that enslaved people be granted, in addition to Sundays, particular periods of time or days away from working in the fields. These days were selected by resident enslavers and overseers.[8] In 1788 the Jamaican Assembly enacted the Consolidated Slave Law. This omnibus law addressed the treatment and punishment of enslaved people as a way to present ameliorative efforts with the intention of making slavery "more bearable" to encourage the natural increase of enslaved people in the colony.[9] Such laws neither reduced the number of hours enslaved people worked in the sugar fields and in other areas of Jamaican plantations nor dictated improvement in the deleterious working conditions on Jamaican plantations. This law, however, included specific rules and guidelines regarding the regular access of enslaved people to provision grounds.

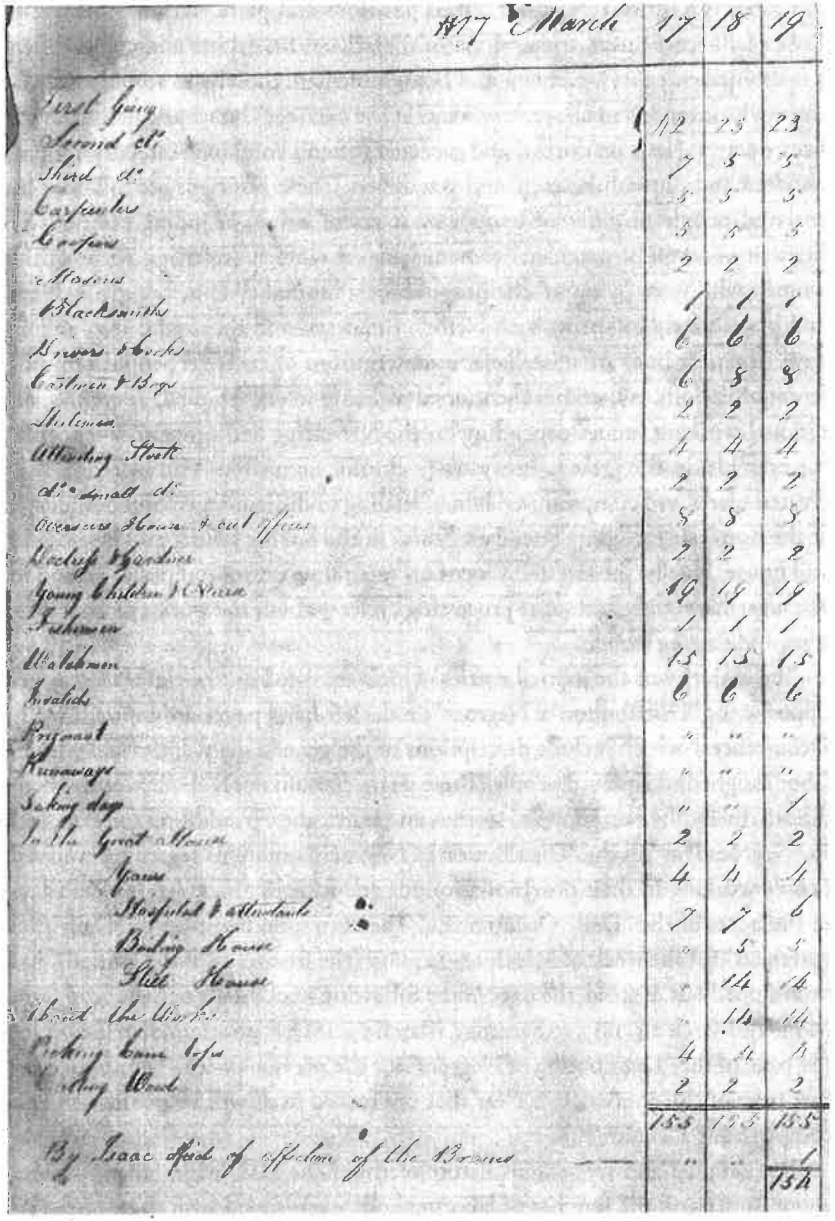
The Jamaican Assembly passed other amendments related to enslaved people's access to provision grounds. Another law enacted in Jamaica in 1809 stipulated that in addition to Sundays, one day in every fortnight would be extended to enslaved people in Jamaica to tend to their provision grounds and not work in the fields. These were the days referred to as "Negroes Day" in the Rose Hall Journal. In 1816 the slave law of Jamaica barred any crop work on Sundays (specifically from 7:00 p.m. on Saturday evening to 5:00 a.m. on Monday morning). There was a twenty-pound fine for those proprietors and enslavers who broke this law. A law in 1826 established that there should be at least twenty-six of these days in each calendar year.[10] Rose Hall overseers, however, did not consistently record such notations about these days in the journal.[11] The description of "Negroes in their Grounds" in the journal reflects the actual intention of these "off" days—for the enslaved to work in the provision grounds, which would provide a substantial amount of the food to nourish their bodies.[12]

All along the left side of the "Distribution of Negroes" page are titles, duties, positions, and work sites—short descriptions of the primary work responsibilities of enslaved people distributed throughout the plantation. In each column, overseers included the number of enslaved people within that particular category on a daily basis. At the top of the list are the often referred to groups/gangs on sugar, cotton, and tobacco plantations in the Americas—first gang, second gang, and third gang.[13] In the Rose Hall Journal, depending on the overseers' individual choices and preferences, these gangs are listed independently, or the first and second gangs are often combined due to their similar, collective duties. Under

the gangs is a list of specialized skilled positions and particular work venues at Rose Hall—carpenters, coopers, masons, blacksmiths, drivers and cooks (often a combined category), cartmen and boys, mulemen, those who attended stock, those who attended small stock, workers at the overseer's house and in the out offices, doctress (later on doctor) and gardener (often a combined category), young children and nurse, fishermen, and watchmen. These positions are followed by enslaved people in different temporary states of being, including positions of fugitivity—invalids, pregnant women, lying-in women (referring to pregnant women who were "lying in" the hospital for a limited time before giving birth and immediately following such births), runaways, and those who were taking days. The next lines are miscellaneous descriptions of enslaved people with different afflictions, sometimes mentioned as being in the hospital, as well as additional working venues depending on the harvesting and processing schedule, for example, in the great house, yaws (a chronic contagious skin infection that created ulcers and compromised bones, leading to disfigurement and disability), at the hospital (including attendants), and in the boiling house, mill house, and still house. Finally, the last items focus on general processes and places related to the sugar-harvesting and sugar-processing cycles—about the works, picking cane tops, and cutting wood.

The majority of the journal entries, which are listed on the right-hand pages opposite the "Distribution of Negroes" on the left-hand pages, are entitled "Daily Occurrences," which include descriptions of the general daily duties and sites of labor assigned to enslaved people. These pages contain notes about weather conditions, including rain showers, storms, and hurricanes. In addition to references to "Negroes Day" in the "Distribution of Negroes," notations regarding enslaved people working in their provision grounds are primarily included on Saturdays in the notes of the "Daily Occurrences." The corresponding page of "Daily Occurrences" for the week of March 17–22, 1817 (the first week of the journal), has been ripped out. Instead, the page of the following week's daily occurrences, from Monday, March 24, 1817, to Saturday, March 29, 1817, is positioned on the opposite page of the "Distribution of Negroes" for the previous week.[14] From the very first page of this journal, it is clear that the record itself will be neither entirely complete nor accurate.

The detailed and meticulous nature of this Rose Hall ledger, with specifics about duties and the number of laboring bodies associated with these responsibilities, also belies some of the overseers' actual mathematical skills. Racial, gendered, and classed elements of the slavocracy also shaped the range of overseers' abilities and different levels of literacy and mathematical abilities. The misspellings and miscalculated totals in the journal entries present the importance of



First page of the journal and notation regarding Isaac's passing on March 18/19, 1817, bottom of page. JARD, 1B/26, RHJ, vol. 1, fol. 1a.

tracking enslaved people and maintaining meticulous records. However, those responsible for the written records and numerical calculations were not necessarily competent in the skills required for these practices. From the very first page of the Rose Hall Journal, the simple addition involved in totaling the numbers in a given column is at times inconsistent and inaccurate. Nonetheless, the descriptions in the columns and numbers recorded in the columns offer some sense of the range of duties at Rose Hall Plantation, as well as estimates of the number of enslaved people assigned to these respective duties.

No particular enslaved person is named in reference to any of the various duties until the very last line of that first "Distribution of Negroes" page for the week of March 17–22, 1817: "By Isaac died of affection of the Brains."[15] "Affection of the brains" was often associated with phrenitis (inflammation of the brain), which frequently included the symptoms of acute fever and delirium. Isaac's passing is also noted numerically in the column on March 19. In that column for that Wednesday, the total tally of enslaved people is reduced from 155 to 154. Isaac's individual identity emerges on this page. His passing serves as a final and solitary marker and recognition in the historical record that he existed at all. He only enters the archival record then as a note in reference to his passing; his sole presence in the journal registers his fatal absence. It is in death that Isaac's personhood emerges separate, though not entirely apart, from the usual distribution of other enslaved people at Rose Hall.

What this official record does not include or reflect in any way are Isaac's physical, psychological, and related experiences of his life and disease and the process of dying. Absent, too, are the other enslaved people's responses to Isaac's disease, duration of suffering, and eventual passing. In what ways did others enslaved at Rose Hall—perhaps people he identified as family and friends—witness the progression of his disease and mourn individually or collectively for him? How did they demonstrate their love for Isaac and all he meant to them beyond his economic value and the financial cost of this loss, beyond this one line at the bottom of this page of the Rose Hall Journal?[16]

Although the Rose Hall Journal does not list "death" as a category of "distribution," death most certainly served as a significant classification and state of being at this Jamaican estate and other Caribbean plantations. Throughout the Rose Hall Journal, disease and death figure prominently in terms of adult enslaved mortality, including fatal accidents that occurred in the harvesting and processing of sugarcane.[17] Over the course of the journal, from 1817 to 1832, the notes related to the passing of enslaved people at Rose Hall appear more frequently in the marginalia of these weekly reports. Earlier overseers often positioned this information at the bottom of the "Distribution of Negroes" section or interspersed it

in the "Daily Occurrences" section. Yet in the final years of the journal, the overseers included this information in the marginalia, with the words written along the side, in the crevices from the bottom to the top of the page. It is important to consider the long history of these ledgers and the marginal references to people of African descent in the context of the transatlantic slave trade.[18]

The inclusion of Isaac's passing is one of countless individual references to enslaved people throughout the journal. In addition to the sporadic listing of individual enslaved people mentioned within the journal itself, official registration of the names and number of enslaved people at Rose Hall began in 1817. Growing concerns about amelioration in the British colonies in the Caribbean resulted in the Jamaican Assembly's passage of the 1816 Slave Registration Bill. This act required enslavers to maintain and submit a record of the births and deaths of enslaved people, as well as the number of enslaved people sold or manumitted. This first year of the Rose Hall Journal also coincided with the submission of the first triennial returns of slaves (also known as the slave registers) for Rose Hall. Attorney Edward Mountague signed the list of names of enslaved people at Rose Hall; this list was dated June 28, 1817.[19] Mountague's list includes the names of all 79 enslaved males and 73 enslaved females, a total of 152 enslaved people at Rose Hall.[20]

Unlike the weekly entries in the Rose Hall Journal, which primarily name enslaved people when referencing their birth, death, pregnancy, or state of fugitivity, the triennial slave register of 1817 (and the subsequent registers of 1820, 1823, 1826, 1829, and 1832) offers specific names of the enslaved women, men, and children at Rose Hall. The first triennial slave register of Rose Hall in 1817 lists all enslaved individuals at Rose Hall as of June 30, 1817; the subsequent registers list only those enslaved people who had been born and those who had passed in the three-year period between slave registers. Individuals are separated into two sublists, "Males" and "Females," with males consistently listed first. These slave registers present and reinforce this binary of males and females without any fluidity possible in the written records. It is important to point out that the absence of this fluidity in the archival documents should not erase the possibility of some sense of flexibility embraced by individual enslaved persons at that time. Although certainly not utilizing the terminology "queer," we can certainly hold the imaginative space for some enslaved people who might have recognized their resistance to this sharply defined gendered construct, as well as "a break in the line of gender."[21]

These slave registers also include an identification of each individual's "colour" (specifically noted as "negro," "sambo," "mulatto," or "quadroon"). These terms are included with particular meanings in regard to Blackness and whiteness or lightness: a "negro" was someone of African and/or Creole negro parentage who was not identified as being racially mixed; a "mulatto" had one negro parent and one white parent; a "quadroon" had one mulatto parent and one white parent; and a "sambo" had one negro parent and one mulatto parent.[22] Also included in these lists are each enslaved person's estimated age and their "country"—their place of birth in Africa or the Americas, as "African" or "Creole," respectively. Selected "remarks" related to their biological maternal connections are included, especially for those enslaved people who were twenty years old and younger (noted as the daughter or son of individual enslaved women at Rose Hall). Of these 152 enslaved people in 1817, 18 are African women, 34 are African men, 55 are Creole women, and 45 are Creole men, a total of 52 African-born people and 100 Creole people (approximately one-third African-born and two-thirds Creole).

In addition to notes scattered throughout the journal, individual names of every enslaved person at Rose Hall are provided in the journal with the annual disbursement of new clothing to enslaved people. This annual clothing disbursement was included in the dictates of the Consolidated Slave Law of 1788. At Rose Hall, this clothing disbursement usually occurred at some point between June and August. Although this list is not included every year in the journal, a list is included at the beginning of the journal entries for June 1828.[23] A similar list, dated August 18, 1832, again related to the annual clothing allowance, is included at the end of a 1911 monograph entitled *In Old St. James, Jamaica: A Book of Parish Chronicles*.[24] As was the case on plantations in Jamaica and on other plantations across the Americas, white enslavers granted enslaved people clothing that was considered practical and durable, given their plantation routines. Enslaved people's clothing was not of the same quality as the clothing of white enslavers. As noted in the June 1828 clothing allowance list for Rose Hall, the two main types of fabric enslaved people received at Rose Hall were osnaburg and peniston (sometimes spelled pennystone); both were cheap, coarse, plain fabrics worn by enslaved people in Jamaica.[25] In order to make the cloth into clothing, at Rose Hall enslaved persons also received twelve skeins of thread and five needles. As the 1828 annual clothing allowance list notes, eight yards of osnaburg and four yards of peniston were distributed to both enslaved women and men, with six yards of osnaburg and three yards of peniston allocated to enslaved children. Enslaved girls also received a smaller yardage (about two yards) of madras/bandana cloth (a plaid pattern that combined red usually with white, orange, or yellow).[26] Enslaved women received four additional yards of another cloth noted as "L. Ells." Although the "ell" was another measurement of cloth, the exact type of fabric is unclear in the records.[27]

A few enslaved women and men received extra yards of osnaburg and peniston, including Dorinda (midwife and hospital attendant), Cecelia (who attended to young children), Celia (grasscutter), George (head driver), William Scott (head carpenter), and Aaron (head penkeeper). The particular positions of the enslaved men probably resulted in their receipt of additional cloth. For Dorinda, this may have been the reason as well. It is not as clear why both Cecelia and Celia received extra cloth and why Dorinda and Celia specifically received the most cloth of all the enslaved people at Rose Hall (fourteen yards of osnaburg and five yards of peniston). The extent of Dorinda's and Celia's duties may well have factored into this special allocation of cloth, as well as the number of children they bore at Rose Hall. It is important to note the exclusion of one particular item in the clothing lists: there are no shoes included in any of the clothing allocation lists, as shoes were not deemed by enslavers as necessities for enslaved people at Rose Hall and other plantations across the Americas.

Even though enslaved people primarily depended on these select items of clothing as they labored, as historian Stephanie Camp reminds us, some enslaved people in the United States also decided to relieve their enslavers of their own clothing and jewelry without their permission and wore them at secret social gatherings.[28] Enslaved people at Rose Hall most likely engaged in "borrowing" particular items of clothing and jewelry from their enslavers as well. Furthermore, it is likely that enslaved women at Rose Hall created other clothing and jewelry from items bartered, stolen, or crafted from other materials in their communities. Although the annual clothing distribution process functioned as another ritual of dominance and dependence, enslaved people at Rose Hall and at other plantations throughout the Americas still forged pathways of artistry and creativity in the articles and objects they fashioned to wear as distinct reminders of their individuality and humanity.

These clothing allowance lists of enslaved people provide additional information about each individual at Rose Hall. The 1832 list in the *In Old St. James* book identifies a total of 111 enslaved people: 51 males (with 15 born after the 1817 list and alive in 1832) and 60 females (with 14 born after the 1817 list and alive in 1832).[29] Of the 51 males on the 1832 list, 8 are African, 42 are Creole, and 1 is unidentified in terms of country of origin. Of the 60 females on this list, 11 are African and 49 are Creole. Whereas in 1817 the African-born enslaved population is one-third of the total enslaved population at Rose Hall, in 1832 the African-born enslaved population drops to approximately 17 percent of the total enslaved population at this plantation. In addition to the identification of an enslaved person's "country" and "colour," noted in the triennial slave registers, the clothing allowance lists (like the one in 1832) include "Christian names"; "married names" for women if applicable; surnames for some children; estimated age; "P/R," the prime rating from one ("prime" and healthy) to five (for the elderly, often deemed superannuated); "valuation" in pounds in colonial currency; "occupation" (closely mirroring the titles and descriptions in the "Distribution of Negroes"); "condition" (e.g., "weakly," "able and healthy," and "venereal"); and "disposition" (e.g., "good," "drunkard," "indolent," "bad," "runaway," and "notorious runaway").

AFRICAN AND CREOLE KITH AND KIN AT ROSE HALL

As Isaac passed a couple of months before the creation of the 1817 Jamaican slave register, his name does not appear at all on the 1817 list. However, for those enslaved people at Rose Hall who were alive and included in the 1817 slave register, I have used this slave register, subsequent triennial slave registers, the 1832 list of enslaved people associated with the distribution of the clothing allowance, and the brief, random descriptions of specific enslaved people strewn throughout the Rose Hall Journal to piece together some sense of this enslaved community.[30] The racial, gendered, and classed tenets of the Jamaican slavocracy systematically truncated personal and familial connections in the archival record by excluding references to men who might have considered themselves and were considered by others to be part of familial frameworks and networks. Even though I am unable to include definitive references to biological fathers and/or to men who played nurturing roles in these Rose Hall families and the broader enslaved community as "other fathers," I have utilized archival documents to create family histories embedded within a communal context.

It is important to note that even as the archival record does not provide a comprehensive narrative of relationships between enslaved people and kinship connections, whether consanguineal (by blood) and/or fictive and expansive, the multigenerational presence of several enslaved families and the myriad multigenerational communal connections at Rose Hall reflect the branches and roots of a community tree.[31] The subject of enslaved family structures in Jamaica has been and continues to be an ongoing contested topic. Some have posited that enslaved Jamaican families lived primarily in nuclear families, and others have underscored more matrifocal and matrilineal family structures.[32] Even as the trajectory in slavery studies may still be moving generally along a fairly traditional heteronormative pathway in an attempt to reconstruct and highlight heteronormative relationships, partnerships, and marriages, there have been new initiatives related to "queering slavery" and moving beyond socially constructed and restrictive heteronormative parameters.[33] The matrilineages in this chapter (and throughout

the book) are not offered as deficient family trees. Instead, they reflect core foundational elements of numerous familial and other intimate relationships that may or may not have included a significant nurturing male presence. The absence of a male presence and male lineage in the recording of births at Rose Hall and other Caribbean plantations in plantation journals does not necessarily or automatically translate into a crucial role that has been denied. We cannot assume that all enslaved children who were fathered by enslaved men emerged out of loving and monogamous heteronormative partnerships at Rose Hall. It is most likely that those enslaved children who were fathered by enslaved men were born due to multiple and complicated intimate relationships that might have been short lived or long lasting, monogamous or polyamorous, consensual or nonconsensual, and even beyond any of the monikers we use in the present day to categorize and simplify the complex interactions and intimacies between people. To consider a community framework and community tree in addition to individual family trees that include women, men, and children at Rose Hall offers an opportunity for us to move beyond linear lineages to community lineages and communal groundings. Some of these intimacies and interactions would have been not only biologically centered but also created because of gendered identities and within generational cohorts.

Multiple generations of enslaved families comprised of African-born and Creole relatives lived at Rose Hall. Although the lists for these individuals and families begin in 1817, some of the enslaved people on the 1817 slave register had probably lived and labored at Rose Hall for many years and even decades before 1817. Although the Rose Hall Journal specifically notes the births of enslaved people at Rose Hall, not all enslaved people described in the journal as "Creole" would necessarily have been born in Jamaica. Some may have been born in the Caribbean or in other areas of the Americas. Some of the enslaved people born in African communities may also have been initially transported to another Caribbean colony before their arrival in Jamaica. Whether African-born or Caribbean-born, they may have labored at plantations in other Caribbean colonies and at other plantations in Jamaica before they arrived at Rose Hall.

Given that England ended its formal, legal slave trade and importation of African captives to its colonies via the transatlantic slave trade in 1807, it is not surprising that a decade later, the eldest enslaved people at Rose Hall were Africans who were born in the 1740s and 1750s, lived into their sixties and seventies, and died before the abolition of slavery. Of the 152 enslaved people recorded at Rose Hall at the end of June 1817, the eldest were two seventy-year-old African-born men named Prague and Lewis-ney (listed also as Jemmy). The passing of both Prague and Lewis-ney/Jemmy was noted in the 1826 triennial slave register dated

June 28, 1826; Jemmy's name was listed immediately above Prague's name.[34] In the Rose Hall Journal, Jemmy's death was recorded on January 26, 1824, and less than five months later, Prague's death "of old age" was recorded on June 8, 1824.[35] Instead of being recorded at the bottom of the "Distribution of Negroes" page or on the "Daily Occurrences" page in the daily descriptions, the note regarding Prague's death was written in the left margin of the "Daily Occurrences."[36] The extant pages of the Rose Hall Journal, however, do not include the exact date and circumstances of his death.

It may have been coincidental that the two eldest members of the Rose Hall enslaved community died within five months of each other at the same recorded age of seventy. Archival records do not convey whether these men or any other enslaved Africans at Rose Hall might have been from the same African communities and even communicated in the same or closely sociolinguistically related African languages. However, we also cannot deduce definitively that there were no enslaved Africans at Rose Hall who shared similar cultural backgrounds, languages, and cosmologies. Perhaps Prague and Lewis-ney/Jemmy shared a camaraderie, brotherhood, and intimacies that had lasted for many years at Rose Hall, and perhaps this resulted in their respective passing within mere months. At the time of the first slave register in 1817, had Prague and Lewis-ney/Jemmy been enslaved at Rose Hall for several years or for decades? Had they shared similar circumstances of being enslaved at different plantations in Jamaica and on other Caribbean islands? Had they been shipmates during the Middle Passage or come from the same region in West Africa or West Central Africa and "become dear to each other"?[37] Were they from the same ethnic group, or did they share knowledge of the same African language or languages, and might they have appreciated the opportunities, however random or infrequent, to speak to each other in a shared mother tongue or in an African language with which they were both familiar?

As with Isaac's passing, the journal does not include any information about how other members of the Rose Hall enslaved community responded to the deaths of Prague and Lewis-ney/Jemmy. As the eldest members of this community, were their deaths marked with any particular celebratory rituals, including mourning songs or ceremonies? As African-born elders in this community, had they previously shared and guided such ceremonies of others who had passed before at Rose Hall and those living on neighboring plantations? Were there particular African-centered mortuary practices that might have been invoked and observed when these two elders passed? With their own deaths, had special ceremonies been included and even been created as a way to observe and celebrate their possible significance by African-born and Creole people enslaved at Rose

Hall and other plantations who might have deemed them their kin or even "family" and by the enslaved community overall at Rose Hall?

Following Prague and Lewis-ney/Jemmy, the oldest enslaved person at Rose Hall was an African-born woman. She is identified as sixty-six-year-old Jreen in the 1817 slave register for Rose Hall.[38] Six years later, her death was recorded in the 1823 slave register; her name in this register is spelled Green. Her age at death is noted as seventy. Jreen/Green probably died of old age on Saturday, May 4, 1822.[39] Although she was the oldest enslaved woman listed at Rose Hall in 1817, Jreen/Green was not the only African-born sexagenarian at that time. Other enslaved sexagenarians included three other African-born women and two African-born men: Rachael (age sixty-two in 1817), Memmy Sen (shortened for Senior, age sixty in 1817), Peachy (age sixty in 1817), Andrew (age sixty in 1817), and Luke (age sixty in 1817).[40] As Prague and Lewis-ney/Jemmy might have developed a certain connection as the eldest African-born men at Rose Hall, did Jreen/Green, Rachael, Memmy Sen, and Peachy create intimate connections of their own that were particular to their gender, age, and duties at Rose Hall? Did this community of African-born elder women extend to those African-born women in their fifties and forties—Rebecca (age fifty-two in 1817), Cecelia (age forty-eight in 1817), Amelia (age forty-five in 1817), Dorothy (age forty-five in 1817), May (age forty-four in 1817), and Janet/Jannet (age forty in 1817)—as well as the six African-born women who were forty in 1817—Cowslip, Dove, Miranda, Polly, Ruth, and Lenora?[41] And were the three other younger identified African-born women—Augusta (age thirty-eight in 1817), Arabella (age thirty-five in 1817), and Stella (age thirty-two in 1817)—included within these networks? Did this transgenerational group of African-born women share their cultural knowledge, practices, and customs about family, community, relationships, resistance, pregnancy, childbirth, child-rearing, and various aspects of womanhood and motherhood with each other and extend this knowledge to Creole enslaved girls and women at Rose Hall and surrounding Jamaican plantations?

This transgenerational presence at Rose Hall endured into the emancipation era in the 1830s in Jamaica. Many of the elder African people listed in the 1817 slave register sustained their presence into the 1820s and a few into the 1830s: Jreen/Green passed in 1822 at the age of seventy, Andrew passed in 1822 at the age of sixty-five, Rachel passed in 1823 at the age of sixty-six, Memmy Sen passed in 1824 at the age of sixty-nine, Gibbes/Gibs passed in 1827 at the age of sixty-five, Luke passed in 1829 at the age of seventy-two, Hyde passed in 1830 at the age of seventy-one, Fox passed also in 1830 at the age of sixty-five, and Craigie passed in 1831 at the age of sixty-four.

At the time of the 1832 clothing allowance list, the eldest women and men at Rose Hall remained African born (and were also listed on Rose Hall's first 1817 slave register). In 1832, African-born March was the eldest person at Rose Hall; on the 1832 list, he is described as sixty-four and a watchman.[42] The other elder African men on the 1832 list include Bolton at sixty-two and Washington at fifty-nine; they all are described as weakly and serving as watchmen at that time. The remaining five African-born men on the 1832 list ranged in age from fifty-six to forty-four: Ross at fifty-six, Garrick and Ralph at fifty-four, Bryan at forty-six, and Aaron at forty-four.

In 1832 the eldest African-born woman was Cecelia, who is listed as sixty-two on the 1832 clothing allowance list. She was the only African-born woman in her sixties at Rose Hall in 1832. Described as "weakly," she is identified in 1832 as primarily attending to young children at Rose Hall. In addition to Cecelia, in 1832 there remained ten more African-born women: Amelia and Dorothea at fifty-nine; May at fifty-eight; Cowslip, Janet/Jannet, Miranda/Maranda, and Ruth at fifty-four; Augusta at fifty-two; and Julina and Arabella at forty-nine. Unlike the eldest African-born men who were watchmen, most of the eldest African-born women—Amelia, Dorothea, May, Cowslip, and Ruth—remained relegated to agricultural-related duties as "grasscutters," or a combination of field work and grasscutting (in the case of Augusta). In 1832 the youngest African-born women, Julina and Arabella, worked solely as field workers. One of the African-born women, Janet/Jannet, is identified as the only "driveress" at Rose Hall at the time (with George being described as the "head driver" and Harry as the "second driver").[43] In addition, Miranda/Maranda's primary duty is noted as "cook for gang." The 1832 list also contains information in the "disposition" column related to fugitivity. Two of the African-born women—Cowslip and Arabella—are described as "runaway." Indeed, given her numerous runaway attempts documented in the Rose Hall Journal, Arabella should have been described as a "notorious runaway." None of the African-born men is noted as a "runaway" on the 1832 list, but four Creole men—Gloster, Alick, Oliver, and James—are categorized as "runaway," with James being specifically described as a "notorious runaway."[44]

The eldest Creole enslaved people listed in the 1817 slave register were the enslaved men Johnny and John Parish; they were both fifty years old. They did not survive long enough to be included in the 1832 list. The Rose Hall Journal describes Johnny's death at age fifty due to dysentery on May 5, 1819, and the 1820 slave register notes his passing.[45] The Rose Hall Journal also mentions the passing of John Parish at age fifty-eight on June 11, 1824; the 1826 slave register also records his death.[46]

The eldest Creole enslaved women at Rose Hall—Hope, Maphe, and Celia—are all listed as forty-five years old in the 1817 slave register. Hope's passing at age fifty-six is recorded in the 1829 slave register. However, both Maphe and Celia, though they are listed in 1832 as fifty-nine years old and "weakly," remained working as "grasscutters" at Rose Hall. Although the triennial slave registers and other related plantation documents delineate the "country" of enslaved people as either "African" (born in Africa) or "Creole" (born in the Americas), this did not necessarily translate into enslaved people working in groups at Rose Hall solely on the basis of their country or region of origin. As grasscutters, Maphe and Celia would have worked alongside the elder African-born women grasscutters: Amelia, Dorothea, May, Cowslip, Ruth, and Augusta.

All of these African-born and Creole enslaved women could have developed relationships beyond their work routines and gang groupings. As enslaved women who had been present at Rose Hall since 1817 (and, for some, possibly several years before that time), they would have been living in close proximity for years and even decades. They experienced the challenges of bondage and the hardships of laboring at this particular plantation, as well as giving birth and (perhaps individually and collectively) raising their children and grandchildren at Rose Hall. In the specific case of Celia, she remained at Rose Hall over the years and decades, witnessing the growth of her family from generation to generation and, most likely, sharing her experiences with some of her children, grandchildren, and great-grandchildren who also resided at Rose Hall.

Transgenerational, consanguineal, and probably expansive and extended kin relationships transpired between African-born and Caribbean-born enslaved people at Rose Hall. Archival records of the African-born enslaved people at Rose Hall do not specify any African community or region of birth; however, those who were African-born probably shared elements of their birthplace and related cultural customs with others at Rose Hall. This sharing would probably not have occurred solely between those who were African born; instead, aspects of African-born people's lives might have been shared with those born in the Americas and living at Rose Hall, perhaps especially with their respective Creole descendants. It is unknown what might have been selectively and consciously disclosed by African-born enslaved people about their African cultural beginnings and groundings. They may have revealed information about their memories of their African connections, histories, families, and communities selectively and purposefully—not every experience, custom, tradition, skill, and memory might have been disclosed to those they called family or friends at Rose Hall or other nearby plantations. Such individual and collective knowledge would not have been one directional. Those who were Creole and not born in African communities would also have had experiences, customs, traditions, skills, and memories of their own that might have been shared or withheld based on various reasons and circumstances.

Enslaved people would have created definite familial and other relationships and networks that were not dictated by Rose Hall's enslavers and overseers; they would have forged intimacies beyond the columns, rows, and notations in the Rose Hall Journal. Due to a range of factors, relationships between enslaved African-born and Creole people would have informed their interactions during times of arduous labor and in guarded moments beyond the gaze and scrutiny of Rose Hall's enslavers and overseers. Even though all of their daily, particularly their intimate, interactions remain unrecorded in the archival documents, we can glean some sense of their relationships by extricating details out of the archival records and imagining and integrating a sense of the fullness of their humanity within and beyond the lines of these records. Building on this overview of enslaved people at Rose Hall, the next chapter explores the experiences of enslaved girls and women as linked to productivity and reproductivity, as well as the conditions of enslaved mothers and enslaved children. These experiences offer a particular lens for examining what might have transpired in the spaces betwixt and between the columns and rows of the Rose Hall Journal, inside and outside of their responsibilities shackled to the agri-industrial plantation complex at Rose Hall.

CHAPTER 2

Bondage, Birthing, and Belonging at Rose Hall Plantation

A legacy of racialized, gendered, and classed conceptions and caricatures of Black women's bodies and sexuality throughout the African diaspora shaped and informed the lived experiences of Black women at Rose Hall in the nineteenth century. In the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries, Europeans began framing Africa and Africans as sites for exploitation and extraction. African women's bodies and their sexuality in particular became aligned with what historian Jennifer L. Morgan describes as "mechanical and meaningless childbearing."[1] By the beginning of the seventeenth century, with England joining other European countries (especially Portugal and Spain) in the transatlantic slave trade, African women became sources and resources to be tapped to address England's socioeconomic needs and desires. As a result, "African women's reproductive work embodied the developing discourses of extraction and forced labor at the heart of England's design for the Americas."[2]

That design for the Americas, including Jamaica and other British colonies in the Caribbean, had been deeply ensconced by the time John Rose Palmer left England and arrived in Jamaica in 1818. In early nineteenth-century Jamaica and throughout the Americas, Black women's dual and intersecting productive and reproductive functions served as the foundational tenets of chattel slavery. This did not translate into an enhanced double or even multiple socioeconomic or cultural valuation of enslaved women in the Americas. Instead, enslaved women were simultaneously valued and devalued within agri-industrial slavery economies based on their interlocking racial, gendered, and classed positionalities. They were valued for their productive and reproductive labor solely in the service of the slavocracy while they were systemically and unequivocally devalued due to their supposedly inferior and innate racial and gendered classifications. In addition, the fruits of their productive and reproductive labor became clearly demarcated by laws and claimed within the parameters of slavery. The doctrine of *partus sequitur ventrem*, dictating that the enslaved or free status of a child followed

that of her or his mother, provided the unequivocal passage through which enslaved women's children became part and parcel of the fruits of racial capitalism and the machinations of the institution of slavery.

The valuation of enslaved motherhood and enslaved childhood in Jamaica was neither consistent nor absolute; instead, it changed from the final decades of the eighteenth century into the early decades of the nineteenth century. With heightened attention garnered by British advocates of the abolition of the transatlantic slave trade, Jamaican enslavers duly recognized and reckoned with their burgeoning awareness of some transformation of slavery in their midst. As historian Colleen A. Vasconcellos explains, in the years leading up to the abolition of England's official involvement in the slave trade, "ideas of child worth and value also shifted as planters realized the need for change in the management and treatment of the women and children on their estates."[3] Jamaican enslavers and the members of their plantation management networks (including managers, attorneys, and overseers) categorized enslaved people who were fifteen and younger as children.[4] Even though enslaved children were not fully engaged in the laborious work in the sugar fields until they were fifteen or sixteen years old, from the age of five or six on Jamaican sugar plantations such as Rose Hall, most young enslaved children became indoctrinated into the less arduous duties of the agri-industrial plantation complex and the expectations of what lay ahead for them as enslaved adults. A number of factors influenced the growing attention to the roles of enslaved children on Jamaican plantations. "As abolitionist sentiment gained both momentum and strength," as Vasconcellos posits, "the white community assigned ever changing subcategories to childhood based on the perceived value, need, and place of enslaved children in the system."[5] Specific terms also reflected changing notions and the continuum of enslaved childhood and adulthood, including the labels of infant, boy, girl, man-boy, and woman-girl.[6] Once Britain ended its official involvement with the trade slave, "enslaved children become more important commodities in Jamaica."[7]

Enslavers' evolving, expansive notions of childhood in Jamaica in the early decades of the nineteenth century also permeated ideas about the transitional age from enslaved girlhood to enslaved womanhood and, by extension, to enslaved motherhood. As enslaved children "became more important to the struggle against natural decrease on the island, the term women-girls occasionally referred to pubescent girls below the age of sixteen." On Jamaican plantations, notions of "womanhood" could encompass girls who were as young as ten. This conception of womanhood also characterized young enslaved girls as sexually available and accessible to white men on a plantation—enslavers as well as bookkeepers and overseers—through rape and sexual harassment. "By the time enslaved girls

reached the delicate age of eleven" on Jamaican plantations, Vasconcellos proffers, "they were women; more specifically they were breeding wenches."[8]

Both the productive and reproductive valuation and devaluation of enslaved girls and women appeared in the pages of the Rose Hall Journal in the scattered notes about enslaved African and Creole mothers and their enslaved children residing at Rose Hall. The blood lineage of enslaved women and the very wombs of enslaved women established the veins and arteries of slavery's multigenerational enterprise. Yet enslaved African-born women who could trace their lineage back to an African homeland and to particular African communities did not wield any immediate economic or sociopolitical currency within Jamaica's nineteenth-century slavocracy or its related, document-based archive. As a result, there are no traces in the Rose Hall records of the African parents (or any known African ancestors) of African-born persons enslaved at Rose Hall. In these records the African-born women enslaved in Jamaica become the source, the origin, the "Eve" of a new Creole population.[9] These African women (and their Creole sisters in struggle and bondage) enter as *the* first identifiable female ancestors at Rose Hall. As a result, this absence denies the presence of the longevity and breadth of their actual African familial lineages, as well as their historical, cultural, and sociological groundings—the copious generations of Africans from countless communities existing on the other side of the Atlantic Ocean.

Although the Rose Hall Journal does not reveal the ancestral connections of the older African-born enslaved people, the journal contains notations of familial connections between African-born and Creole enslaved people at Rose Hall. It is likely that some elder African-born enslaved women at Rose Hall were mothers or "other mothers" who nurtured and guided other enslaved African-born and Creole women whether or not they shared consanguineal or affinal kinship ties. Following the doctrine of *partus sequitur ventrem*, notes in the Rose Hall Journal identified enslaved African and Creole mothers and their enslaved children residing at Rose Hall. Ninety-nine enslaved girls and women lived at Rose Hall between 1817 and 1832; these girls and women were part of multigenerational relationships between great-grandmothers, grandmothers, mothers, children, grandchildren, and great-grandchildren all residing at Rose Hall. Twenty-seven enslaved girls were born between 1817 and 1832. The eldest of this generation of enslaved children who remained alive in 1832 was Daisy/Daizy; she was fifteen at the time of the 1832 register. Her birth is recorded in the Rose Hall Journal on December 22, 1817.[10] The remaining seventy-two were adult enslaved women: nineteen African-born women, fifty-one Creole women, one woman (Julina) who is categorized in the 1817 list as Creole but in the 1832 list as African, and one female named Mariah who is noted as a runaway in the Rose Hall Journal

but does not appear in any of the slave registers.[11] As a result, there is no indication of Mariah's age or whether she was African born or Creole.

Of the four eldest African-born women in 1817—Jreen/Green, Memmy Sen, Rachel, and Peachy—only Rachel is specifically identified as being the mother of a child at Rose Hall. She is described as the mother of eighteen-year-old Peter in the 1817 list. As Rachel is listed as sixty-two years old in 1817, Peter was probably not her first child, though he may have been her last child. No other children at Rose Hall are described as being daughters or sons of Rachel. Rachel and the other enslaved sexagenarian women may well have had children located at Rose Hall and/or at other plantations, although those children are not recorded in the registers and the journal. Indeed, Memmy Sen may have been the mother of another African-born woman at Rose Hall named Miranda, and if she were Miranda's mother, then she would be the only African-born woman who became a grandmother and great-grandmother living with her kin at Rose Hall from 1817 to 1832. It is certainly likely that all (or most) of these African-born enslaved women had given birth to children who may have died at an early age or were living at other plantations in Jamaica or in other areas of the Americas or the African continent. The Rose Hall Journal does not include any notations about enslaved mothers at Rose Hall Plantation having enslaved children residing at other Jamaican plantations. Furthermore, as only enslaved mothers of children are listed in the Rose Hall records, African and Creole men who were the fathers and grandfathers of children and grandchildren at Rose Hall or any other Jamaican plantations were not identified as such in the Rose Hall Journal. However, the mothers and grandmothers of these children probably recognized these children and grandchildren as their kin. Even though these children and grandchildren of African and Creole men may not be documented in the archives with specific biological and familial connections, that did not foreclose these children and grandchildren from being recognized as part of these individual lineages, multiple family roots, and communal frameworks.

Of the fifteen enslaved African-born women of childbearing age at Rose Hall in 1817, the records describe approximately eight of them as mothers of children at Rose Hall: Rebecca, Cecelia, Dorothy/Dorothea, May, Miranda/Maranda, Polly, Augusta, and Stella. Augusta and Cecelia had not only children but also grandchildren at Rose Hall. The remaining seven African-born women of childbearing age were not explicitly identified as mothers in the records: Amelia, Cowslip, Dove, Janet/Jannet, Lenora/Leonora, Ruth, and Arabella.

The thirty-one enslaved Creole women who are listed as mothers of children at Rose Hall were Celia, Hope, Maphe/Maph, Daphney, Nancy, Sarah/Sambo Sarah, Delia, Dorinda, Rosannah, Zebra, Juno, Charlotte, Liddy, Giss/Gift,

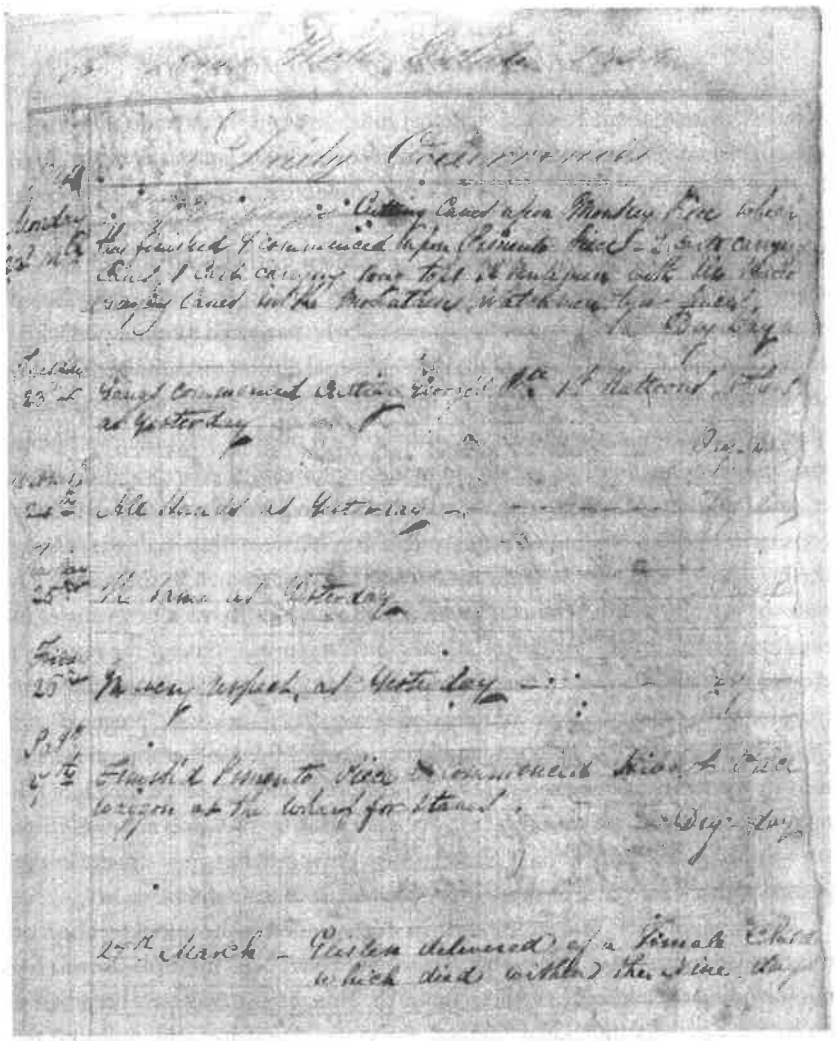
Kate, Mary, Panella, Susannah Johnston, Jeany, Chance, Matilda, Bell, Mary James, Memmy Jun, Bessy, Cynthia, Glister/Glissom, Christianna, Brown, Dianna/Diana, and Jane Cranston.[12] Six of these mothers became grandmothers at Rose Hall: Celia, Hope, Maphe/Maph, Nancy, Sarah / Sambo Sarah, and Rosannah. Only one of these Creole women, Celia, became a mother, grandmother, and great-grandmother at Rose Hall.

There were nineteen Creole women who were of childbearing age and not specifically identified as mothers of children at Rose Hall: Beck, Nelly, Lucretia, Susannah Scott, Doshy, Molly Spence, Parthenia, Joan, Frankey/Frankie, Sabina, Flora, Pastora, Rose, Kitty, Clarinda, Fanny, Phoeba/Phibba, Peggy, and Doll.[13] In addition, one young girl, Clara, died at the age of eleven. Julina, who is listed as Creole in the 1817 slave register and African in the 1832 clothing allowance list, is also not identified as a mother. It is possible that one or more of these women had children who were living at other plantations. Moreover, as other scholars have noted, the specific conditions at sugar plantations in the Caribbean adversely affected the reproductive potential of enslaved women and increased the possibility of infertility.[14] It is also possible that one or some of these women chose not to have any children while enslaved; as a result, they may have engaged in gynecological as well as medical and herbal practices that limited or completely eliminated the possibility of pregnancies. Some scholars have utilized the term "gynecological resistance" to highlight different ways that enslaved women resisted exploitative and forced reproductive practices. Such practices included extending breastfeeding periods as a partial form of birth control, abortion, and infanticide.[15] However, historian Sasha Turner notes the importance of not equating gynecological resistance with what she characterizes as "maternal resistance." Gynecological resistance centered around biological processes that should not be conflated with the range of maternal acts, rights, and practices.[16] In addition to considerations regarding gynecological resistance, Africana studies scholar Felicia Denaud posits "Black gesturgency" as "practices and strategies of slave revolt concerning or coordinated by pregnant rebels across the African diaspora."[17] Perhaps older African-born and Creole women provided guidance and knowledge about specific practices and strategies and effective substances regarding reproductivity rooted in African and/or Caribbean cultural epistemologies as well as medical and healing practices. We do not know definitively whether these factors contributed to the decisions these women made individually or even collectively among a select group about their reproductive choices at this Jamaican plantation. However, it is important that we recognize enslaved women's possible strategies and decisions about accepting or resisting pregnancies and childrearing at Rose Hall Plantation.

LYING-IN AND DYING AT ROSE HALL: MOTHERHOOD, MORTALITY, AND MOURNING

Scholars writing about enslaved maternal mortality and infant mortality on Jamaican plantations have long described enslaved women in Jamaica dying in childbirth or during the days and weeks following childbirth, as well as enslaved pregnant women who miscarried, delivered prematurely, or had stillborn children.[18] Whether enslaved women labored in Rose Hall's sugar fields or labored as "domestics" in and around the great house as cooks or washerwomen, they joined other enslaved women on Jamaican plantations who navigated motherhood while engaged in the laborious duties of the agri-industrial plantation complex. The cursory descriptions in the Rose Hall Journal offer evidence of the toll the arduous quotidian duties of enslaved girls and women took on their physical, psychological, and emotional well-being, including descriptions of the birth and death of enslaved children. Information in the triennial slave registers for Rose Hall is fairly consistent in the recording of births and deaths between 1817 and 1832. Given the heightened value of the reproductivity of enslaved women in these early decades of the nineteenth century, there was some attempt to track pregnancies in the Rose Hall Journal.[19] At different points in the journal, some of the overseers created separate columns for women who were pregnant and for those who were lying in, while other overseers combined these two categories (e.g., "pregnant and lying in with midwife"). "Pregnant and Lying in with Midwife" became one of the recurring permanent categories on the "Distribution of Negroes" pages. Only the number of women appears in this category from week to week. It is not until these women had given birth to their children that the mothers' names appear in the journal with the reference to the delivery of a female or male child.

The names of these newborns are often not included in the initial mention of their respective births in the journal. There could have been multiple reasons for not including the names of newborns at birth. This absence may have been based on enslaved parents' individual, familial, and cultural practices and traditions regarding naming processes, rituals, and ceremonies. Different naming practices and ceremonies existed across West African and West Central African societies, and these cultural customs were not replicated in their entirety on Jamaican plantations. Even with different cultural customs, due to the conditions of bondage, shared conceptions still coalesced about allowing "a seven-to-nine-day period before incorporating babies into the community."[20] Some enslaved newborns might not have been named in the first several days after their arrival due to the stark recognition and reality that many enslaved newborns did not live past the ninth night.[21]



Notation regarding Glister's birth of a baby girl who passed within nine days of her birth, last line of March 27, 1824 entry. JARD, 1B/26, RHJ, vol. 2, fol. 41b.

There were a number of overseers' inconsistencies in the recording of newborns' names in the journal. One overseer noted that on March 27, 1824, "Glister delivered of a Female Child which died within the Nine days."[22] Within a year before or after her daughter's birth, Glister, also referred to as Glisson, had also given birth to a son named Sam, who died at ten days old.[23] Sam is the only child of Glister/Glisson listed as dying in the three-year period after the 1823 slave register. Due to the missing and unreadable pages in the journal between late June 1822 and May 1823, it is likely that Sam's birth and death occurred within this time period. Yet Glister's female infant who died within the oft-referenced nine-day period is not included in the 1826 slave register. It is possible that, having survived to the tenth day, Sam had been named, and thus his death is recorded in the triennial slave register. Though the birth and death of Glister's newborn daughter are noted in the journal, they are not recognized in the official slave register.

Glister's daughter was not the only newborn who died within the nine-day period and whose birth and death were not recorded in the slave register.[24] Indeed, the journal also mentions the deaths of other unnamed newborns. In the daily notes for Friday, August 27, 1824, the overseer noted that "Kate Delivered of a Still Born child."[25] Kate's newborn does not appear in the 1826 slave register in the list of deaths at Rose Hall. On Wednesday, July 2, 1823, the overseer recorded, "Gift Delivered of Dead Child."[26] There is no other mention of Gift/Giss having other children. However, two years after this infant's passing, the overseer noted on September 28, 1825, in the marginalia that "Gift died in Childs bed."[27] It is possible that this infant's passing, though unrecorded in the official slave register, made an indelible mark on her mother, Gift/Giss, and that the death of her infant was not marginal to Gift/Giss's own life and might have contributed to her own passing.

In addition to listing stillborn infants, the journal also mentions the miscarriage of Mary, who is described as being in the hospital the week of September 9, 1832. Mary remained in the hospital during the week of September 16. She is no longer listed as being there the week of September 23. It is unlikely that this was the only incident of a miscarriage at Rose Hall. Pregnant women who had miscarriages may not have disclosed this information, and/or such cases might not have been recorded on a consistent official basis at Rose Hall.[28]

Not all newborns who died within nine days of their birth were unnamed and unrecorded.[29] The 1826 slave register notes that the baby girl Lydie, daughter of Jane Cranston, died at seven days.[30] Although Lydie died within the nine-day period, she was named perhaps by her mother, by her father, or by other members of the community. As a result, her birth and death within the nine-day period are

recorded in the 1826 slave register. Her name in the slave register appears as Lydie in the line regarding her birth and Leddie in the line noting her death at seven days (both lines note that she is the daughter of Jane). Jane is listed as a three-year-old mulatto in the 1817 slave register, and she would have been between the ages of nine and twelve when she gave birth to Lydie/Leddie sometime between late 1823 and early 1826. Her young age at the time of her daughter's birth and the unstated circumstances related to conception possibly contributed to the death of her newborn.

Even though the creation of these triennial slave registers was supposed to provide an accurate accounting of the number of enslaved people and a more systematic way of monitoring enslaved people in the British colonies in the Caribbean, the absence of some of these newborns in the slave registers underscores the incomplete nature of this recording system. As a result, the deaths of days-old infants are not fully captured in the official records, and the infant mortality rate overall based on such records does not present the entirety of this fatal reality at Rose Hall and at other Jamaican sugar plantations.

Moreover, even as their respective infants are unnamed and unrecorded in the official slave registers, we do not know whether Glister/Glissom, Kate, Gift/Giss, or other family members privately named these infants. We also do not know whether any or all of these enslaved women engaged in any mourning practices or customs by themselves or involving other family or community members at Rose Hall in recognition of the loss of these infants. The absence of any accounting and registering of these infants' deaths in the official slave registers did not necessarily translate into a similar absence of recognition, mourning, and grief for the loss of these souls for their mothers and other members of the Rose Hall community.

Even with the absence of notations regarding stillborn infants in the triennial slave registers, these registers reflect enslaved mortality realities at Rose Hall, including acute infant and child mortality, with the particular births and deaths of specific infants being recorded in the same register. These triennial slave registers consistently list the names of recently born children first, followed by the names of recently passed persons (of all ages). For example, the birth of Morris (one of Dorinda's children) and then his death at the age of two are listed in the 1820 slave register.[31] The birth and death of John at age one (one of Mary's children and one of Maphe's grandchildren) are listed in the 1823 slave register.[32] The Rose Hall Journal includes John's birth on April 16, 1822; however, due to missing pages in the journal in 1823, the specific date and cause of John's death are not included in the journal.[33] The birth and death of Marcus (one of Matilda's children and one of Nancy's grandchildren) are also recorded in the 1829 slave register. Matilda, a Creole woman listed as eighteen in 1817, had three children at Rose Hall.[34] Two of her children remained at Rose Hall in 1832. Her son Adam was noted as age one in the 1826 slave register and six in 1832.[35] Matilda's daughter Sylvia's birth is recorded in the journal in June 1831 and in the 1832 slave register.[36] Between the birth of these two children, Matilda's son Marcus died; his birth and death at age two are included in the 1829 slave register.[37] The birth and death of another infant named Maxwell (one of Bell's children and one of Celia's grandchildren) are also listed in the 1829 slave register. Marcus's age at death is listed as two years old, and Maxwell's age at death is noted as one year old.[38] Some of the children born at Rose Hall only lived for months. Charity (one of Brown's children and one of Augusta's grandchildren) is listed in the 1829 slave register; the record notes her birth and then her death three months later.[39]

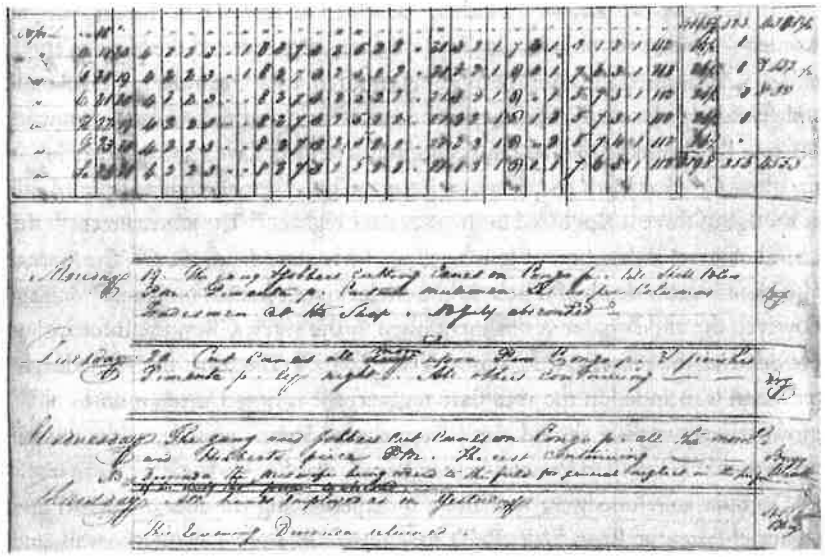
Even though the slave registers indicate that a number of enslaved women had one child who died within the first couple of years of life, there were enslaved women at Rose Hall who had experienced the deaths of multiple young children. Mary, a Creole woman who was twenty-three in 1817, had at least five children.[40] Three were alive in 1832: Ned, described as sambo and age two in 1820 and then as mulatto and age thirteen in 1832;[41] Sally Rose, described as sambo and age one in 1823 and then as mulatto and age eight in 1832;[42] and Jimmy, sambo and six months old in 1826 and age five in 1832.[43] Mary also had two sons who passed. Her son John is described as sambo, and both his birth and death at age one are recorded in the 1823 slave register.[44] Allick, described as negro, was three months old in 1829, and his death due to fever at age two is noted in the journal.[45]

Creole Dorinda had at least four children who died before reaching the age of five. Her son Morris, as previously noted, died at age two, and two additional sons, Allick and Surry, died around their first birthdays.[46] One of her daughters, Eliza, died at age four.[47] Indeed, three consecutive triennial slave registers—1820, 1823, and 1826—list the death of at least one of Dorinda's children. Before and after these deaths, Dorinda had given birth to at least five additional children who had survived from birth to the 1832 final list of enslaved people who received their clothing allowance at Rose Hall: Sam, who was eleven in 1817 and twenty-five in 1832;[48] Anthony, who was seven in 1817 and twenty-one in 1832;[49] William, who was two in 1817 and sixteen in 1832;[50] Venus, who was one in 1826 and six in 1832;[51] and John, who was three weeks old in 1829 and two in 1832.[52]

Dorinda is referred to as the midwife in the Rose Hall Journal in 1830 (and probably the only midwife at Rose Hall at that time).[53] She is also described in the slave registers and other lists as "hospital attendant."[54] It is unclear how long

she was a midwife at Rose Hall and what her particular duties and responsibilities were. Some enslaved midwives in the Anglophone Caribbean received remuneration for their skills and services.[55] There is no indication in the journal or other archival documents that Dorinda received any form of cash payments for her duties as midwife at Rose Hall. However, as stated earlier, the additional clothing she received during the 1828 clothing allowance might have represented partial recompense for her midwifery services. Her combined responsibilities at Rose Hall as a midwife and hospital attendant centered on her prenatal care of pregnant women, guidance and support during their laboring processes, and postnatal assistance with newborns.[56] It is important to consider the particular burdens of enslaved women such as Dorinda who had given birth to several children and experienced the deaths of a number of them as well. As previously noted, the records indicate that Dorinda had given birth to at least nine children, four of whom died between the ages of one and four. Perhaps Dorinda having given birth to the most children at Rose Hall during these early decades of the nineteenth century led her to be deemed a suitable midwife. It may also have been the case that Dorinda was interested in midwifery and doctoring in general, and those interests encouraged her to be in this particular position at Rose Hall. She might also have realized that even when dealing with the complications of pregnancy and myriad illnesses, she preferred this labor instead of joining other enslaved mothers (described as "worker-mothers" by Sasha Turner) in the fields day after day. Having experienced the loss of four of her children, Dorinda would have been keenly aware of the realities of infant mortality and the psychological, emotional, and physical reverberations for enslaved mothers in the wake of their children's deaths. Yet even as she dealt with the loss of multiple children, Dorinda still remained responsible for assisting and guiding other women through the birthing processes and care of their infants. We can reasonably assume that Dorinda experienced complicated and contradictory feelings and emotions as a result of all of these experiences.

Despite Dorinda being the only woman identified as a midwife at Rose Hall, the first reference to her as a midwife in the journal is in regard to her "neglect" of her midwifery duties. The journal entry for Wednesday, April 21, 1830, states: "Dorinda the midwife being ordered to the field for general neglect in the performance of her duty that proper [unclear handwriting] to abscond." The entry for the following day, Thursday, April 22, 1830, notes: "This Evening Dorinda returned."[57] And almost eight months later, in the journal entry on Saturday, December 11, 1830, it is noted that one of Elizabeth Palmer's children died a couple of days after being born due to "neglect of Dorinda—the midwife, being the fourth child in succession."[58]



Notations regarding Dorinda, the midwife, running away on April 21, 1830, when she was ordered to work in the field for "general neglect" of her duties, as well as her return the following evening on April 22, 1830 (bottom of this cropped page). JARD, 1B/26, RHJ, vol. 3, fol. 72a.

The reasons for Dorinda's "neglect" of her duties are unknown. It is possible that Dorinda's own children demanded additional time and that her children's requests and her responses compromised her time and attention related to her midwifery duties. The cumulative effects of the loss of Dorinda's four children between 1818 and 1824 might also have informed her "neglect" of her duties related to other enslaved mothers and pregnant women. She might have been particularly neglectful with pregnant women with whom she did not get along and/or did not particularly like. No matter what the reasons for her "neglect" of her duties, the harsh reality of her punishment of "being ordered to the field" undeniably resulted in her decision to abscond quickly from Rose Hall. Yet her decision to return the following day may well have been guided by her familial and communal connections to Rose Hall. Even if she had to serve temporarily as a field worker, she would still be physically close to her five children—one of whom, her youngest, John, was not quite one at the time Dorinda ran away. Indeed, Dorinda's "neglect" may not have involved any "neglect" whatsoever, given the brutal, deleterious elements of slavery that reflected and exacerbated the precarity and disposability of Black life in the agri-industrial plantation complex in Jamaica.

Of the forty-one enslaved mothers identified at Rose Hall, the majority of women—most of whom were also field workers—experienced the loss of a child, and several endured the death of multiple children. Like Dorinda, Juno had multiple children who died in infancy, although others lived.[59] Archival documents disclose the deaths of four of Juno's children. The 1823 slave register notes Juno's daughter Cecelia's birth and death at the age of one.[60] Her daughter Prue's death at the age of three is also listed in the 1823 slave register.[61] The journal records the arrival of another daughter of Juno's, named Lydia, on May 3, 1824.[62] The journal also mentions the death of Juno's child from lockjaw (tetanus) on January 6, 1826; however, the child's name is not mentioned in the entry. Given the information provided in the records, this is most likely Lydia.[63] The birth of Juno's daughter Susan is included in the 1832 slave register; she is noted as ten months old.[64] However, this register should also have included Susan's passing, as the journal notes that Susan died of fever on September 26, 1831.[65]

Dorinda and Juno were not alone in experiencing the loss of infants and young children at Rose Hall. Bell's first three children, Lewis, Maxwell, and Rosanna, had died between the ages of one and five. Her fourth child, Ned, five months old in 1832, perhaps lived into the postemancipation era. Brown's one daughter, Charity, passed when she was three months old, as listed in the 1829 slave register.[66] Charlotte's daughter, Doll, was seventeen in 1832;[67] however, her son, Thomas, died at nine years old in 1826.[68] Christianna's daughter, Jane, was born in 1831 and was noted as one in 1832;[69] her son, Henry, died at the age of two.[70] Glister/Glissom experienced the loss of two children, Sam, who died at ten days old, and an unnamed daughter, who died within the nine-day period. Glister/Glissom's daughter Marinda/Naranda was four in 1832.[71] As a result of the persistent presence of infant and child mortality, mourning itself might have been experienced and even understood as a painfully integral rite of motherhood at Rose Hall (and other Caribbean plantations). The enslaved women who experienced the deaths of their infants and young children at Rose Hall may have collectively offered each other compassion, comfort, and condolences, given their shared experiences of this particular loss and grief.

In 1831, on the eve of emancipation, African-born May possibly believed that the worst had passed in terms of the loss of a child. It had been over a decade since her daughter Peggy had passed; Peggy was fourteen in 1817, and she died at the age of seventeen.[72] May had two adult children in their thirties: Joan, who was nineteen in 1817 and thirty-three in 1832, and Sabina, who was eighteen in 1817 and thirty-two in 1832; both were field workers at Rose Hall.[73] Neither Joan nor Sabina was noted as having any children. There were also no children mentioned for May's eldest daughter, Lucretia. Unlike her younger sisters, Joan and Sabina, Lucretia would not have the possibility of having any children at Rose Hall, as she passed in the year before the final triennial slave register of 1832. Lucretia was twenty-eight years old in 1817 and forty-two when she died.[74] We do not know whether Lucretia had been ill for some time or if her passing occurred suddenly due to an accident. In 1832 fifty-eight-year-old May was still working as a grasscutter, and she perhaps had been envisioning life beyond bondage with her three adult daughters. When Lucretia passed, May perhaps was grateful that at least two of her four children would live to experience abolition, but still she probably grieved for the loss of Peggy and Lucretia. At no point could enslaved mothers rest easy about their children's mortality; long after the ninth day of their children's births, even after several decades, enslaved mothers could still be confronted with the passing of their adult children.

No matter what comfort and support mothers at Rose Hall received, for some mothers of deceased children, the loss of a child perhaps hastened their own passing. Liddy, a twenty-six-year-old Creole woman in 1817, had three children. Pastora, Liddy's daughter, was eleven in 1817 and twenty-five in 1832.[75] North, her son, was six in 1817 and twenty in 1832.[76] Her youngest child, her son Parish/Paris, was four in 1817. However, both Liddy's and Parish/Paris's deaths are recorded in the 1823 slave registry. Liddy's age at death is noted as thirty, and Parish/Paris's is four. Parish/Paris's death as a result of worms is described in the journal on January 6, 1819.[77] For some reason, Parish/Paris's death is not recorded in the 1820 slave register. There is no specific information about Liddy's passing in the pages of the journal, and thus we do not know the circumstances surrounding her death. Although two of her children had survived their early years of life, perhaps when Parish/Paris passed at a young age, Liddy could not navigate her way through her mourning for him. Given Liddy's age at the time of her death—thirty years old—she would have passed a couple of years after Parish/Paris had died.

African-born elder Cecelia would outlive Liddy, her only daughter, at Rose Hall, and in 1832 Cecelia continued to labor at Rose Hall into her sixties. Two other African-born women, Dorothy and Rebecca, experienced the passing of their adult children. The death of Dorothy's daughter, Giss, at age thirty-two is noted in the 1826 slave register. Unlike Cecelia, who had two sons still alive at Rose Hall in 1832, Giss was the only recorded child of Dorothy's at Rose Hall. It is possible that Dorothy may have had other children living at other plantations. Even if that were the case, this may still have been a significant loss, possibly compounded by the fact that Giss's only recorded pregnancy resulted in a stillbirth. Perhaps Giss had benefited from the support of her mother and other enslaved women in the Rose Hall community when she experienced her own loss of a child. With Giss's passing, perhaps members of the enslaved community at

Rose Hall and other plantations would have comforted, supported, and loved Dorothy as she continued to live at Rose Hall in the years after Giss's death. Dorothy was still working as a grasscutter at the age of fifty-nine in 1832.[78]

Giving the approximate timing of Giss's passing, Dorothy may have been sharing her grief and mourning with one other enslaved woman in particular. At the same time Dorothy was mourning Giss's passing, Rebecca was also grappling with a similar, though perhaps to her a compounded, loss. Rebecca, who was fifty-two in 1817, had two children at Rose Hall.[79] Though she, too, may have had other children living at Rose Hall and other plantations during her lifetime, the 1817 slave register identifies her as the mother of Doshy, a daughter who was twenty years old in 1817, and Exeter, a son who was seventeen in 1817.[80] The Rose Hall Journal references the passing of Doshy on November 8, 1823, and the 1826 slave register notes Doshy's passing at the age of twenty-eight.[81] Exeter's passing at the age of twenty-seven is recorded in the triennial register of 1829.[82] Given Exeter's death at age twenty-seven and the placement of his name on this slave register, he probably died between the end of 1826 and the beginning of 1827.[83] As Doshy had absconded from Rose Hall on numerous occasions, Rebecca may have expected Doshy eventually to run away successfully. Rebecca, however, may not have anticipated or been prepared for Doshy dying before her at Rose Hall. Indeed, Rebecca may still have been mourning the loss of Doshy when Exeter passed. Exeter's death may have exacerbated her feelings of loss and perhaps even regret. We do not know who may have shared Rebecca's feelings about her children's individual and joint deaths. What we do know is that Rebecca's passing is recorded in the journal on July 15, 1828, and the reason for her death at the age of sixty-three is noted as "old age."[84] As Rebecca labored at Rose Hall for at least twelve years and possibly for much of her life, her age most certainly contributed to her passing. However, her age may only have been one of several factors that affected her passing in 1828; Rebecca's mourning for her two adult children and possibly an extended collective mourning for other children at other plantations with perhaps even older children in West Africa or West Central Africa may well have been a significant cause for the timing of her own death.

Although the Rose Hall Journal documents the passing of children of all ages for enslaved adult women at Rose Hall, not all of the mothers at Rose Hall had experienced the loss of a child as adults. Jane Cranston is described in 1817 as a three-year-old mulatto and daughter of Creole Sarah (also known as Sambo Sarah and Sarah Spence).[85] As previously stated, the 1826 slave register notes the birth and subsequent death of Jane's daughter Lydie/Leddie at seven days old.[86] Jane's age in 1832 is noted as seventeen.[87] Given the three-year time period between slave registers, this meant that Jane would have given birth to her daughter

when Jane was between the ages of nine and twelve. We have no record of the biological father of Jane's daughter; and as the conditions of conception are also unknown, we do not have any indication of how Jane responded to this pregnancy or the death of her newborn. However, Jane's pregnancy and the subsequent birth of Lydie/Leddie illustrate one poignant example of the sociosexual vulnerability, fragility, and precarity of enslaved young girls at Rose Hall Plantation and other plantations in the Caribbean. Jane's feelings about the death of her child may have been complicated by a sense of mourning and grieving related to violations of her own innocence. We can neither understand nor begin to explain what these enslaved mothers experienced and felt with the loss of an individual child or several children, and no mourning rites and processes may have addressed the layered, profound dimensions of Jane's and other enslaved women's experiences and respective feelings.

Even as enslaved people abided in the shadow of death, not all enslaved women experienced the death of their children. The archival records do not have any information associated with the deaths of children for eighteen enslaved women (almost half of the worker-mothers) at Rose Hall: African-born women Augusta,[88] Polly,[89] Rachel,[90] Stella[91] as well as Creole women Bessy,[92] Chance,[93] Cynthia,[94] Daphney, Delia,[95] Dianna,[96] Hope,[97] Jeany,[98] Maphe,[99] Memmy Jen, Nancy,[100] Panella, Rosannah, and Sarah. Even as many enslaved mothers at Rose Hall lived to witness some of their infants survive beyond nine days or even nine years and beyond, not all of these mothers would endure long enough to see their children cross into adulthood. When she was seventeen years old, Memmy Jun gave birth to one son, Isaac.[101] However, only a couple of years after she gave birth to Isaac, Memmy Jun died at nineteen years old. The cause of death is not mentioned in the record.[102] Isaac was still alive in 1832 at age twelve. Panella was twenty-three when she gave birth to her daughter in 1817.[103] Her daughter Daizy is listed as two years old in 1820.[104] Even though Panella's life ended in 1822 due to consumption/tuberculosis, her daughter Daizy remained alive in 1832 at age thirteen.[105] Considering that Panella died when Daizy was four years old and that Isaac was even younger when his mother, Memmy Jun, passed, it is clear that another woman (or women), as well as other people in the Rose Hall community, mothered and nurtured both Daizy and Isaac in the physical absence of their respective biological mothers.[106]

The notes about the brevity of some of these mothers' lives offer evidence of the toll their quotidian duties and schedules took on them as worker-mothers who tended to sugarcane fields and, in a few cases, domestic duties in the great house or in the overseer's house. Daphney was forty years old in 1817, but her name appears in the next slave register, as she passed a year later. The overseer noted

that Daphney "died of natural decay." It is important to mention that Daphney's age at death was recorded as forty—a reflection of the deleterious, onerous effects of slavery on her and other enslaved people at Rose Hall.[107] Although Daphney passed at forty, she lived to see both of her daughters enter different stages of adulthood—her daughter Parthenia was twenty in 1817 and thirty-four in 1832.[108] Her daughter Fanny was fourteen in 1817, though she passed at the age of eighteen, a few years after her mother's death.[109] Like Daphne, Rosannah, one of Celia's daughters, also died at the age of forty.[110] Rosannah's one child, Mary James (mulatto), appears in the 1817 and 1832 registers.[111] Four of Mary James's children remained alive at Rose Hall in 1832.

Even while they may have lived and labored at Rose Hall together over a stretch of years or decades, enslaved worker-mothers were not always working in close proximity to their children, no matter what their ages. Laboring as a "domestic" at the great house or as a field worker did not necessarily translate into enslaved mothers being in close proximity to their younger or older children. The four children of Sarah Spence (sambo and forty years old in 1817)[112] at Rose Hall were all alive in 1832, and each worked in different areas of Rose Hall's agri-industrial plantation complex: Molly Spence (sambo and twenty in 1817 and negro and thirty-three in 1832),[113] William (mulatto and nineteen in 1817 and thirty-three in 1832),[114] Bessy (mulatto and thirteen in 1817 and twenty-seven in 1832),[115] and Jane Cranston (mulatto and three in 1817 and seventeen in 1832).[116] Both of Sarah's two grandsons (Bessy's sons) were also alive in 1832: quadroons Richard Mabon and Robert. With the categorization of her first child, Molly Spence, as sambo/negro and her following three children as mulatto, it is most likely that multiple men fathered Sarah's children and that at least one father was a white man. Molly Spence was the only child of Sarah's who was a field worker in 1832. William was a cooper, and Bessy was a washerwoman. In 1832 Jane was described as "with Mrs. Palmer." This probably included tending to Mrs. Annie Palmer's needs and overall well-being; thus, Jane's position centered on Mrs. Palmer in the great house.

It is likely that Sarah Spence's primary duty was not field work, especially given her color categorization and the duties assigned to most of her children. Even though she probably did not have to contend with the physically taxing labor of field work, Sarah may still have been responsible for a range of domestic duties. Perhaps the onerous nature of those duties took a particular toll on her, as Sarah's death at forty-seven is noted in the 1826 register (along with the death of her youngest daughter Jane's infant, who died at seven days old). Although described as sambo in the 1817 list, Sarah is described as mulatto in the 1826 slave register noting her death. There is no reason included in the slave register for Sarah's death. We do not know what could have caused her death at the age of forty-seven. We cannot be certain of the particular psychological, emotional, physical, and sexual burdens she experienced as the child of an unspecified enslaved woman (and possibly a white man), as the mother of three children who were fathered by one or multiple white men, as the mother of a daughter who gave birth to her first child between the ages of nine and twelve, and as the mother of another daughter who gave birth to two children described as quadroons (and thus also fathered by one or two white men).

It is possible that although Sarah and other enslaved women might not have had children with recorded deaths during their lifetimes, they might still have experienced the loss of children who are unrecorded in the official registers for Rose Hall—stillbirths and newborns who died within nine days of birth. The older women may have experienced the passing of their children at different ages while they labored at other plantations before their arrival at Rose Hall and even while they lived at Rose Hall physically separate and apart from other children. With the likely presence of "other mothers" (women who mothered and nurtured people who were not biologically related to them), even if these women did not experience the loss of their own biological child or children, they could still have been overcome with feelings of deep loss with the passing of "fictive kin" and "other children." Furthermore, even as some of these women lived to witness their children enter into adulthood, others also experienced the loss of grandchildren. Nancy's daughters entered their thirties while she was alive in 1832, though Nancy experienced the loss of two grandchildren, Leddy (Kate's daughter was six months old in 1826 and then dead at the age of eight months old in the subsequent slave register of 1829) and Marcus (Matilda's son, whose birth and death at age two are noted in the 1829 slave register).[117] Moreover, though this section focuses on motherhood, as is often the case in discussions of slavery and parenthood, we must also at least recognize the loss that some enslaved men experienced at the passing of children whom they fathered and nurtured and who may or may not have been their biological children.

We do not know the circumstances surrounding the conception and birth of any enslaved child born by an enslaved woman at Rose Hall or the specific biological father for any of these enslaved persons at Rose Hall. As on other sugar plantations throughout Jamaica and the Americas, the sexual violation of enslaved girls and women represented one of the deeply embedded tenets of chattel slavery.[118] After England's abolition of its involvement in the legal slave trade in 1807, the economic value of enslaved girls and women rose due to their potential

reproductive capabilities. At Rose Hall, the records reflect the certainty of interracial sex between enslaved women and white men. Given the racial, gendered, and classed power dynamics of the slavocracy in Jamaica, we cannot assume "consent" of enslaved women in these circumstances. Some families may have experienced multiple generations of interracial rape at Rose Hall. Although the majority of enslaved people of all ages at Rose Hall were categorized as negro, in the records, as previously mentioned, there were a few enslaved people who were classified as mulatto or quadroon.

Mere references to the categorization of enslaved people as mulatto and quadroon do not reveal any sense of the conditions of conception. Just as the archival documents for Rose Hall fail to disclose the circumstances surrounding the conception of people referred to as negro, they also remain silent on the nature of the acts and processes that resulted in the births of those categorized as mulatto and quadroon. Due to the particular racial, gendered, and classed power dynamics on sugar plantations such as Rose Hall, it may be difficult to imagine the complexities, nuances, and simultaneity of such acts and processes of coercion and coitus. Evidence of white male enslavers' acts of sexual violation has been explored through their diaries and miscellaneous plantation records.[119] Although one enslaver provided detailed information of the acts from his perspective, the extent and depth of enslaved women's responses to these individual and collective acts remain unknown.

There are also no known diaries or journals and no sentences or words left behind written by any enslaved women at Rose Hall about any of their experiences that resulted in the birth of children sired by white men (or any men) at Rose Hall. We know that Celia's daughter Rosannah had one child, daughter Mary James, who was a fourteen-year-old mulatto in 1817 and a twenty-eight-year-old in the 1832 clothing allowance list. We do not know about Rosannah's specific responsibilities and jobs at Rose Hall; in 1832, though, Mary James's primary job was as a great house attendant. Mary James had five children living at Rose Hall: Peggy (quadroon, and her birth and death at age two are included in the 1823 register); John, also known as John Kerr (described as quadroon and age one in 1823 and ten in 1832); Henry (mulatto and age one in 1826 and six in 1832); Eliza Hill (mulatto and eighteen months old in 1829 and four in 1832); and Edward Hill (mulatto and two years and five months old in the 1832 slave registry). Although Mary James is categorized as mulatto, which indicated that her father was a white man, we do not know who Mary James's father was or what conditions led to Rosannah giving birth to Mary James. In a similar vein, with Peggy and John categorized as quadroon, we also do not know which white man (or white men) sired these two children of Mary James. When Mary James's daughter Peggy died at the age of two, did Mary James experience degrees of mourning or relief or both? Mary James's last three children (Henry, Eliza Hill, and Edward Hill) were described as mulatto (not quadroon or sambo), so it is unclear whether they were miscategorized as such or if the biological father or fathers of these children were also mulatto.

Evidence of transgenerational interraciality also exists in the records for another enslaved family at Rose Hall. Sarah Spence, also referred to as Sambo Sarah, is described as a forty-year-old woman in 1817. We do not know any information about her mother or father. Although she is described as sambo in 1817, she is recorded in the 1826 slave register as mulatto and dead at the age of forty-seven. Her first child, Molly Spence, is also categorized in two different ways in the slave registers (as sambo and twenty years old in 1817 and then as negro and thirty-three years old in 1832). Molly Spence was Sarah Spence's eldest child and the only one who was identified as a field worker. Given her primary duty, it is possible that Molly Spence was defined as negro in 1832 to be consistent with the color designation of the other field workers at Rose Hall. Sarah Spence's other three children are identified consistently as mulatto: William (nineteen in 1817 and thirty-three in 1832, cooper), Bessy McLaren (thirteen in 1817 and twenty-seven in 1832, washerwoman), and Jane Cranston (three in 1817 and seventeen in 1832, job with Mrs. Palmer). Sarah had two grandchildren living at Rose Hall in 1832; these were Bessy's children. Both are described as quadroon—Richard Mabon (one in 1823 and nine in 1832) and Robert (one in 1829 and three in 1832). As with Rosannah and Mary James, we do not know the circumstances resulting in the birth of Sarah Spence, her children, or her grandchildren.[120]

Without any diaries or journals or scraps of paper left behind by Rosannah, Mary James, Sarah, or Bessy, we do not know what transpired between these enslaved women and the white men for whom they bore children. At Rose Hall Plantation between 1817 and 1832, possible white fathers would have included the overseers and bookkeepers, as well as enslaver John Rose Palmer himself. Some scholars have downplayed the characterization of acts of sexual violation during slavery, especially in the discussion of enslaved mothers of mulatto or quadroon children. It is critical to recognize that whether sexual violation occurred only one time or occurred over decades between a white enslaver or overseer and an enslaved woman, the simultaneity of power, domination, and violence exercised through sexual acts must be directly recognized and addressed.[121] Without the words of these enslaved women who bore the children of white men, we perhaps can look to one fictional representation of sexual violation from the vantage

point of an enslaved woman, Lilith, at Montpelier sugar plantation in Jamaica. Marlon James's novel *The Book of Night Women* offers a glimpse into one example of rape:

> Outside, the girl spin round two times and laughter rush in one ear and outside the other. The darkness giving her nothing. She can't make out shapes. Her left eye swell and her cheek wet from either sweat or blood. A driver they call McClusky grab her and she stop spinning. He set her good. The girl standing now but she teetering. She didn't see it coming. McClusky punch her straight in the face, between eye and nose. The girl fall back flat on the ground and near knocked out. She bite her tongue. . . .
>
> The girl only seeing a blur of white hands and faces and the faces have no eyes or nose or mouth. A hand grab her by the foot and drag her for a bit. Dirt scrape under her skin and rock cut up her legs. A hand grab her wrists and pull her up again. . . .
>
> The girl hear laughter running in and out of her ears again. Two hands grab two ankles and she try to scream through all the blood in her throat choking her. . . . Two hands drag her to what look like a stable. They pull her up to her feet again and start to push her from one set of hands to the other, and again and again and up and down until she lose balance with the ground and fall again. Two hand catch her. More laughter. The girl feel her dress rip off her body and cold air rush into her bruises. More laughter. McClusky say something about first and another voice say something violent. The girl hear a scuffle and a shout.
>
> —Mince her up, a voice say.
>
> One hand grab the girl left leg and the other grab her right and pull them as far apart from each other as sun and moon. She feel the air crawl between her. More laughter. A man pull down him pantaloon and slap him cocky till he ready. He throw himself on top of her to more laughing and shouting. The girl feel the whole weight of the man crushing her chest and forcing between her legs. A man with yellow hair, straight and sour. He grab her neck and her eyes go black.
>
> The ball still going and people still eating, drinking and merry-making. . . . The girl on the ground in the stable not moving, the dust making more sound than her.[122]

James's fictional description of the rape of Lilith should not be read as either entirely fictional or wholly exceptional. Indeed, in 1816 the Jamaican Assembly directly addressed the sexual abuse of enslaved girls who were under the age of ten. That the Jamaican Assembly dictated that any sexual activities with a female slave under the age of ten were punishable by death "suggests that the rape of enslaved girls under the age of ten was so prevalent that the Assembly enacted a law to prohibit it; it is also another indication that there was no consideration of childhood or girlhood on Jamaica's estates before the creation of the law."[123] Vasconcellos also presents cases in this category after the enactment of this law that were not adjudicated and concluded without any punishment at all. In fact, such cases only reified that "slaves were chattel, no matter their age," and thus entirely available and accessible to be exploited and sexually abused according to the desires, needs, and whims of whites.[124] Although archival records document the sexual abuse of enslaved women of African descent at the hands of white men with whom they interacted on a quotidian basis in Jamaica and throughout the Americas, an explicit description of such acts does not exist for Rose Hall. Nonetheless, the racial and color categorizations of enslaved people, especially enslaved children born at Rose Hall, provide evidence of such circumstances and the convolutions of slavery and sexuality. The recorded births of enslaved children at Rose Hall not only intimated conditions of bondage but also offered the naming of enslaved children as a lens for uncovering individualized and collective elements of belonging at Rose Hall.

NAMES AND NAMING PRACTICES

Even though the records provide limited information regarding the paternity of enslaved children and the circumstances surrounding respective conceptions at Rose Hall, the naming of enslaved people might offer some sense of the connections of kith and kin at Rose Hall. As discussed previously, the (un)naming of newborns who passed within days of their birth represents an aspect of enslaved infant mortality. It may have also reflected elements of disposability related to Black enslaved lives; however, this was only one dimension of the naming processes of enslaved people at Rose Hall. Indeed, scholars have long engaged in multiple interpretations of the meanings of names and naming practices among enslaved people and their descendants in the Caribbean.[125] Names and the processes of naming are deeply layered and textured within the African diasporic kaleidoscope. In some communities, names are also part of an elaborate constellation of familial and communal systems of belonging to respective lineages and communities. Naming practices among the Yoruba in Nigeria, for example, allow family, friends, and community members to offer their suggestions for names of the new members of their respective families and communities. These names might refer to circumstances related to the birth of children (e.g., twins named Taiwo (firstborn of twins) and Kehinde (second-born of twins), irrespective of

gender, though it is culturally believed that Kehinde is in fact the firstborn who pushes Taiwo out into the world first), as well as honor and wealth bestowed on the family (e.g., Folasade means "honor earns a crown" or "crowned with wealth and honor"). These names frequently include connections to other family members, the timing of a child's birth, and namesaking (e.g., Yejide and Babatunde for when a child is born relatively soon after the passing of a female or male elder in the family such as a grandmother or grandfather as a way to pay homage to and honor that passing elder).[126] Among the Akan of Ghana, birth order and special circumstances also shape the naming of children. Furthermore, day names are often included in the naming process. For example, Sunday-born males are called Kwasi or Kwesi, and Sunday-born females are called Akosua; Wednesday-born males are called Kwaku, and Wednesday-born females are called Akua and Akuba.[127] For the Yoruba, Akan, and Ga peoples, the eighth day after birth is often the day designated for the naming of newborns.[128] These represent only a couple of examples of the naming-related practices in West Africa; however, these are by no means the only West African naming practices. Moreover, it must be clearly declared that there was (and is) no monolithic, singular African naming practice in West Africa or for enslaved and free African-descended people in the Caribbean.

The institution of slavery and the miasma of bondage compromised African naming practices throughout the Americas and in many ways limited the enslaved parents' decision-making processes about what names parents (and enslaved community members generally) wanted for their children, including what names they (as children or later as adults) would be referred to by enslavers. It is not possible to know exactly who named individual enslaved people at Rose Hall or what complicated processes of naming transpired in the days and weeks following the birth of an enslaved infant (whether or not that infant survived beyond nine days of life). However, some of the names in the archival record might offer a glimpse into enslaved people's use of names as a way of demonstrating familial connections grounded in community relations, recognition, and remembrance.[129] Names at Rose Hall might even serve as a way to determine a few instances of maternal and paternal connections that were neither specifically nor directly stated in the triennial slave registers. Was the reference to infants living beyond nine days (and possibly being named after that period of time) similar to or even based on the Yoruba, Akan, and Ga practices of waiting until the eighth day before a newborn's name was shared as part of a naming ceremony? Waiting until the eighth day to name newborns in these West African contexts emerged as a way to make sure the newborn had completely transitioned from one realm to another and survived the first week of life before being named. This practice

also allowed some time for the family and community to get to know the newborn and to decide on appropriate names for the child. This practice and related West African and West Central African customs of naming might have been reshaped and utilized by African-born and Creole enslaved people in Jamaica partially in response to the deleterious circumstances and conditions of the plantationscape (including references in the archival documents about the ninth day after birth representing a particular kind of final gateway to a new realm of being).

Just as some naming practices may have been transformed due to the spatial shift from West Africa and West Central Africa to the Caribbean, we cannot assume that temporal consistency prevailed in any naming practices of enslaved people from the seventeenth century into the nineteenth century in Jamaica. Moreover, we simply do not know the multiple and even contradictory motivations of why enslaved people utilized names that might have been given by white enslavers or names chosen for themselves. Even when previously enslaved people chose "white" or "English" names in Jamaica, we cannot conflate that, neither clearly nor definitively, to a desire to be white. We can, however, consider that previously enslaved people wanted to shed the inferior meanings ascribed to Blackness and may have partially utilized names as a way to affirm and demonstrate their humanity, volition, and freedom. We still need to consider how enslaved people's understanding and use of names (like their invocations of naming practices) may have changed or been altered from the seventeenth century to the nineteenth century, from West Africa and West Central Africa to the Caribbean. Furthermore, at Rose Hall there were possible patterns of naming children after loved ones who had passed or in honor of an elder family or community member by whites or by enslaved people and/or even some combination of these two aspects. For some, too, Christian rituals (such as baptismal practices) might have created additional names for some enslaved people.

At Rose Hall there was only one clearly identifiable African or African-derived name in the official slave registers—Quaco. Quaco is considered a creolized form of the Akan day name for a male born on Wednesday; the name is Kwaku in the Twi language.[130] In the 1817 slave register, Quaco is the thirteen-year-old son of thirty-year-old Delia.[131] He is also the grandson of forty-five-year-old Creole Celia. We do not know what meanings Delia or other community members associated with the name Quaco itself. Quaco's family members could have chosen that name as a way of invoking familial history linked to the Akan people of West Africa. Celia's mother was probably African born, and she may have been Akan. Perhaps Celia or African-born members of the Rose Hall community became involved in Quaco's naming process and purposely decided to utilize an African-centered name in honor of the family's possible Akan connections. Although

Quaco's "Christian name," Robert Williams, is included in the 1832 clothing allowance list, the official slave registers only refer to him by the name Quaco. It is also possible that Quaco's family members were not aware of the Akan meaning of the name Quaco at all. They may have utilized it to convey a connection to an African past, with or without any familial or ancestral link to a particular region or cultural background.

In addition to the distinctly Akan-related name Quaco, there are also English familial references that might offer additional information about kinship bonds at Rose Hall. In the nineteenth century, the use of Junior and Senior reflected a familial relationship, specifically indicating one person being younger or older than another person. At Rose Hall there are two women's names presented in this Senior-Junior manner: Memmy Sen (short for Senior) and Memmy Jun (short for Junior). These designations might have been utilized simply as an efficient way for using the same name and including a reference to distinguish between the older Memmy (Memmy Sen) and the younger Memmy (Memmy Jun). This naming pattern might even have reflected the choice some enslavers claimed as a right to name enslaved people on their farms and plantations. Perhaps, though, these particular names were created as a way of honoring an elder by invoking the name again for a younger member of a family (namesaking) or another person in the enslaved community generally. In the 1817 slave register, Memmy Sen is described as a sixty-year-old African-born woman. Seven years later, the journal entry for November 1, 1824, includes a notation that "Old Mimmy an Invalid died" on October 30, 1824.[132] In the 1826 slave register, Memmy Sen's death is also recorded (at the estimated age of sixty-nine).[133]

In the 1817 slave register, Memmy Jun is a fourteen-year-old Creole (negro) girl, and she is identified as the daughter of Miranda, a forty-year-old African woman. If there were no relationship between Memmy Sen, Miranda, and Memmy Jun, why was this name repeated in this way? There is no archival confirmation that Memmy Sen was Miranda's mother and Memmy Jun's grandmother. However, it is possible that Memmy Jun was named by Miranda and perhaps by Memmy Sen, Memmy Jun's father, and other members of the community. This name choice might have represented a way of honoring one of the elder African women members of a family or of this community. But why does Miranda's daughter in particular have this name and not another enslaved child at Rose Hall? Although not specifically noted in the records, it is possible that Memmy Sen and Miranda were biologically related as mother and daughter or in some other familial relationship. Even if they were not biologically related, Memmy Sen might have nurtured and mothered Miranda as an infant or young child who may have been separated from her biological mother during the process of captivity, during the Middle Passage, or after they arrived in the Caribbean. Even if Memmy Sen was not Miranda's biological mother, she might have become for Miranda an "other mother" who helped her to navigate life at Rose Hall.

In this same family, Glister/Glossom (one of Miranda's daughters) named one of her daughters Marinda/Naranda. Before this child's birth, as noted earlier, Glister/Glossom had given birth to a son and a daughter, both of whom died within only a few days of their respective births. This third child of Glister/Glossom, Marinda/Naranda, is recorded as eighteen months old in the 1829 slave register, and she is four in the 1832 clothing allowance list. Glister/Glossom may have named this child with a derivative of the name of her mother, Miranda, as a way of honoring her African-born mother, as well as with the possibility that this name might also protect this child and allow for a longer life. In fact, Glister/Glossom's African-born mother, Miranda, remained alive in 1832 at the age of fifty-four and worked as the "cook for gang."[134]

This was not the only example of a younger Creole girl bearing the same name as an elder African woman at Rose Hall, whether they were related by blood or not. In the 1817 slave register, Cecelia is described as a forty-eight-year-old African-born woman, and in 1832, Cecelia is recorded as sixty-two years old and of "good" disposition, though "weakly."[135] On February 5, 1822, thirty-one-year-old Creole Juno gave birth to a daughter named Cecelia.[136] The following year, the 1823 slave register, however, records both this infant Cecelia's birth and her death at the age of one.[137] Although the elder Cecelia's life lasted for the entirety of the triennial slave registers from 1817 to 1832, the younger Cecelia's life, like that of many infants born into slavery in Jamaica, lasted but one year.

Seven years after Cecelia's birth and death in 1822 and 1823, another daughter of Juno, Hope, is noted in the 1829 slave register as two and a half years old.[138] Three lines below the listing of Hope's birth, the name Hope is repeated. This listing, though, is on the first line in the section on deaths. This elder Hope's age at death is noted as fifty-six in the 1829 slave register; the Rose Hall Journal records her death on December 7, 1828, due to "debility."[139] This elder Hope was Juno's mother, who appears in the 1817 slave register as a forty-five-year-old Creole woman. A record of the younger Hope's exact birth date does not appear in the readable pages of the journal. Given the younger Hope's age in 1829, she was probably born in 1826 or 1827 before her grandmother Hope passed. Perhaps given the elder Hope's declining health, Juno decided to name this daughter in honor of her mother, Hope. Unlike Juno's daughter Cecelia, young Hope survived her first year, and she is described in 1832 as four years old, "healthy," and of "good" disposition, working in the hogmeat gang or the children's gang, which was assigned to a range of cleaning and clearing duties on the plantation.[140]

The reasons for the naming of two of Juno's daughters after elder enslaved women at Rose Hall—one African born and the other her Creole mother—are not included in any of the slave registers or other plantation documents. With her infant daughter Cecelia dying within a year of her birth, Juno's next child after Cecelia (recorded in the slave registers) was daughter Lydia. The journal notes Lydia's birth on May 3, 1824.[141] This Lydia does not appear in the 1832 list of enslaved people at Rose Hall, and the journal notes the death (due to lockjaw) of an unnamed child of Juno's on January 6, 1826.[142] For Juno and possibly other members of the enslaved community at Rose Hall, another daughter's birth in 1826 or 1827 offered an opportunity to honor another enslaved woman in the community and, in this case, Juno's ailing mother, Hope. Perhaps the birth and death of two daughters one after the other and the arrival of another daughter in 1826 or 1827 served as another reason for naming this newborn Hope. In 1827 there may have been mounting hope not only for this daughter's survival but also for the possibility that this Hope's future (and the entire enslaved community at Rose Hall) would not be bound by the shackles of slavery.

The repetition of names reflects perhaps a marker of belonging and kinship within the Rose Hall enslaved community. This repetition occurred not only with the names of women but also with the names of a few men. In the 1817 slave register, Lewis is the name of two men, seventy-year-old African-born Lewis-ney and twenty-five-year-old Creole Lewis. As was the case with all African-born enslaved men at Rose Hall, the elder Lewis-ney (a.k.a. Jemmy) is not mentioned with any familial descriptions or family relationships at Rose Hall. Though he was not recorded as a father in the slave registers or in any of the other archival material, this does not necessarily mean that Lewis-ney/Jemmy did not have biological kin and/or create expansive kinship networks at Rose Hall. Given the age of the younger Lewis, it is possible that Lewis was named for the elder African Lewis-ney/Jemmy and even had a possible familial connection to him. With the forty-five-year age gap, Lewis-ney/Jemmy might even have been younger Lewis's grandfather.

In the 1817 slave register, the younger Lewis is noted as being the son of forty-five-year-old Creole Celia. If Lewis-ney were biologically related to younger Lewis, then Lewis-ney might also have been related to Celia—possibly Celia's father. Just as the records do not reveal Celia's mother or father, Celia may have given birth to other children who may have died at Rose Hall or lived on other plantations. The 1817 slave register includes references to Celia's five living children at Rose Hall: Rosannah (age thirty), Delia (age thirty and possibly a twin of Rosannah), Lewis (age twenty-five), MacGuire (age nineteen), and Bell (age fourteen). The 1817 slave register and subsequent lists include notes concerning

Celia's five grandchildren (Mary James, Quaco, Lewis, Maxwell, and Rosanna) and four great-grandchildren (Peggy, John, Henry, and Eliza). Moreover, the records only reference Celia's daughters' children and grandchildren. It is most likely that Celia's sons, Lewis and MacGuire, fathered children at Rose Hall and/or other plantations. Celia may also have had other grandchildren and great-grandchildren living on other plantations if she had additional children who resided at other plantations.

Celia's son Lewis is specifically mentioned in the journal on December 8, 1818. When a Rose Hall wagon was in the process of running errands (including transporting shingles from another site to Rose Hall), Lewis is noted as "falling under the Wheel it Crush'd him so much as to cause his death."[143] The 1820 slave register notes Lewis's death at the age of twenty-five. After Lewis's death, another Lewis is mentioned in the records: Bell's son Lewis (and Celia's grandson), who is one year old and categorized as sambo in the 1823 slave register. The invocation of the name Lewis for this infant in this family was not necessarily coincidental. This Lewis is the first recorded child of Bell at Rose Hall. Bell was described as a fourteen-year-old Creole girl in 1817, so she was old enough to remember her uncle Lewis and even to have developed a connection to him before his fatal accident in 1818. It is also possible that Bell, her mother, Celia, and other members of the community collectively decided to name Bell's son Lewis in the wake of Lewis's untimely death and perhaps in honor of elder (and possibly family member) Lewis-ney/Jemmy, who passed in January 1824, only a short time after the birth of Bell's son.

Bell's son Lewis appears in the 1829 slave register; his death is noted at the age of five in this register. In this same slave register, another son of Bell named Maxwell is also included; his birth and his death at age one are also recorded. After Maxwell's death, Bell gave birth to a daughter named Rosanna. It is possible that, given the similar name, Bell's daughter Rosanna was named in connection with Bell's aunt Rosannah. Infant Rosanna's birth is noted in 1829. Her birth is mentioned in the Rose Hall Journal on May 11, 1829.[144] The journal also notes her death on March 6, 1832, at the age of two due to fever.[145] Although Bell may have had other children living on other plantations, in the Rose Hall records, only one of Bell's children was alive in 1832: her son Ned, who is described as five months old in the 1832 slave register. In 1832 Bell was described as twenty-eight years old, working in the field, "healthy," and of "good" disposition. Although Bell is characterized as being of "good" disposition, this did not necessarily or accurately reflect Bell's state of mind, that of a twenty-eight-year-old woman whose primary duty was in the fields and who had experienced the death of three children (and possibly more unrecorded) over the course of a decade.

Like the repetition of the name Lewis, the appearance of another name in Memmy Jun/Mimmy's family might also indicate a familial connection. The journal notes that on Thursday, April 13, 1820, "Mimmy deliver'd of a Male Child." In the 1820 slave register, this son of Mimmy is identified as Isaac.[146] Is it possible that this child is named in honor of Isaac who died in March 1817? And if so, Isaac, whose name only appears at the bottom of the first page of the journal, announcing his passing, may have been connected to Memmy Jun's family. It might well have been her family, in addition to other community members, who mourned Isaac's passing.[147]

As in the case of Memmy Sen, the invocation and repetition of "Sen" for one other enslaved person might also refer to a familial connection. A forty-five-year-old African-born man named Patrick is noted in the 1817 slave register. The one and only time his name appears in the journal is in reference to his passing. A note in the journal on October 28, 1828, in the margin on the left side of the page states, "Patrick Sen died on the 28th Inst from eating a pisonus fish."[148] Patrick's death is included in the 1829 slave register.[149]

Patrick is also the name of one of the sons of African-born Miranda, who was forty years old in 1817. Miranda's son Patrick was born on September 8, 1818.[150] Records indicate that Miranda gave birth to three daughters before the birth of this son, Patrick (i.e., Memmy Jun, who was fourteen in 1817; Glister/Glissom, who was eleven in 1817; and Christianna, who was six in 1817). That Miranda's son is named Patrick may suggest a connection with African-born Patrick Sen—Patrick Sen may have been his father. Indeed, Patrick Sen may have fathered other children of Miranda who lived at Rose Hall (and possibly at other plantations). It is also possible that Patrick Sen, even if he were not the father of the younger Patrick, could have been an "other father" to the younger Patrick; he may have represented an important nurturing presence in his life.

The records do not allow for definitive answers regarding enslaved people's naming processes and name choices at Rose Hall. Even though Quaco is the only seemingly identifiable African name at Rose Hall, the names written on the official slave registers might only have included some of the names linked to enslaved people at Rose Hall. Other names—African-derived and/or newly created creolized names—might well have been invoked and utilized by enslaved people beyond the white gaze and hearing. It is possible that enslaved people created, adapted, and utilized African or African-derived familial naming processes and communal structures as avenues for the recognition of consanguineal connections, as well as for the remembrance of dead and/or elder members of Rose Hall's enslaved community. It is also critical to consider how enslaved people used naming as a process of reclaiming their humanity and their control over themselves and their family members.[151]

Even as enslaved people at Rose Hall may have developed and utilized particular naming practices, cultural customs, and communal processes to carve out moments and spaces that affirmed their humanity and their relationships at Rose Hall, the oppressive and consuming nature of the agri-industrial sugar plantation complex still infringed upon and compromised their individual and collective lives. The routine weekly listing of duties and responsibilities in the journal exemplifies the emphasis on the valuation of the jobs assigned to enslaved people and the erasure of the individual enslaved people who were responsible for the successful completion of these duties by any means necessary. The next chapter provides a sense of those individual enslaved persons who were relegated to the gangs laboring in the sugar fields, as well as those who were engaged primarily in other aspects of the workings of Rose Hall Plantation. The regular groupings of individual enslaved people in work gangs may have not only constituted a laboring unit but also engendered other interactions and relationships beyond the categorizations of being part of the "first gang," "second gang," or "third gang" or performing other jobs not solely centered on the harvesting of sugarcane (e.g., midwife, blacksmith, and cooper).

Interspersed throughout the litany of laboring in the Rose Hall Journal are references to enslaved women, men, and children who challenged the force of bondage. The next chapter highlights the persistent and continuous acts of those enslaved persons who risked their lives for even a few hours of freedom. As a result, overseers included a row in the journal for runaways—the row usually positioned at the bottom of the list of jobs and duties. Whether absconding for a few hours, days, or months or never caught, these recorded episodes of fugitivity present only one mode of resistance of countless acts and processes of resistance hidden seemingly behind veils of submission and masks of subjugation—often undetected and unrecorded in the extant archival records.